Political Representation and Civic Participation: Evidence from Close Ethnic Elections

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November, 2026

Working paper. Please see the most recent version here.

Abstract

Does co-ethnic political representation encourage citizens' political participation or substitute for it? We exploit close legislative elections between candidates of different ethnic groups in Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda to examine how winning representation changes civic engagement and political attitudes. These consequences depend on whether the group previously held the seat. Among previously unrepresented groups, narrow winners report lower civic participation but greater institutional trust than narrow losers. Among previously represented groups, the participation effect is small and insignificant, and the difference between the two groups is significant. The participation gap reflects less frequent participation in community meetings and collective efforts to raise issues, not lower willingness to participate. Pooled across groups, we find no significant average effects, although these estimates are imprecise. The findings are consistent both with representation reducing incentives for collective action and with greater mobilization among groups that remain unrepresented. The consequences of electoral victory thus depend on a group's prior political position.

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We are grateful for the helpful discussions at the ECONTribute Applied Economics seminar.

1 Introduction

Political representation can change both the effectiveness of citizens' own political action and their need to participate. A representative who is responsive to constituents' demands may make civic engagement more productive, encouraging participation. Alternatively, if the representative advances their interests without requiring direct involvement, the additional benefit of costly collective action may decline. Representation can therefore complement or substitute for citizens' own political engagement. This tension is particularly relevant where political office brings substantial benefits to the officeholder's group. Across sub-Saharan Africa, a large literature documents ethnic favoritism in public investment, education, and economic activity (Burgess et al. 2015; Franck and Rainer 2012; Kramon and Posner 2016; Hodler and Raschky 2014), and recent evidence links ethnic parties' legislative seats to employment gains for their groups (Amodio et al. 2024). Yet these benefits do not tell us whether obtaining representation increases citizens' own efforts to pursue political influence or reduces their incentives to do so.

The participation consequences of electoral victory may depend on a group's prior political position. For a group that did not previously hold a constituency seat, victory establishes co-ethnic representation, whereas defeat leaves the group without it. For a group that previously held the seat, victory preserves representation, whereas defeat removes it. These comparisons involve different changes in political position and potentially different incentives for direct participation. This paper examines how narrowly winning co-ethnic representation affects civic engagement and political attitudes, and whether the consequences differ according to prior representation.

Identifying the consequences of representation is challenging because electoral success depends on characteristics that may also shape political participation, including a group's size, political organization, and electoral mobilization. We address this problem using a regression discontinuity design based on close legislative elections in single-member constituencies. We focus on races in which the two leading candidates belong to different ethnic groups. Near the electoral cutoff, a small difference in votes determines which candidate holds the constituency seat, allowing us to compare the subsequent civic engagement and political attitudes of members of narrowly winning and narrowly losing ethnic groups.

We combine constituency-level results from 14 parliamentary elections in Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda with geocoded Afrobarometer surveys and information on candidate ethnicity and local ethnic composition. We classify candidates' ethnicity using their names and geographic context and assess classification accuracy against independently hand-coded labels. The analysis sample contains 3,243 respondents in 236 races. Our outcomes measure participation in community meetings and collective efforts to raise issues, perceived responsiveness, institutional trust, and broader political attitudes. The design identifies the local effect of a co-ethnic candidate narrowly winning rather than losing the constituency seat, conditional on the regression discontinuity assumptions. This contrast also encompasses differences between the competing candidates beyond their ethnicity, including their party affiliations.

We first document that electoral competition between ethnic groups is uncommon. The two

leading candidates belong to different ethnic groups in only 13 percent of the races we observe. Among races in which every candidate is assigned an ethnicity, 26 percent feature candidates from multiple groups, compared with 53 percent under a benchmark in which candidates are drawn randomly from the constituency's ethnic population. The composition of candidate slates thus limits the circumstances in which elections can change which ethnic group holds a constituency seat. Our regression discontinuity analysis focuses on races in which this possibility is at stake.

Our central finding is a substantial negative civic participation contrast among groups that did not previously hold the constituency seat. Within this subsample, narrow winners report civic participation 0.57 standard deviations lower than narrow losers. At the same time, they report institutional trust 0.60 standard deviations higher. Among previously represented groups, the estimated effects on both outcomes are small and statistically insignificant. The difference in civic participation effects between the two subsamples is 0.72 standard deviations, and the difference remains statistically significant under race-cluster bootstrap inference. The corresponding difference in institutional trust effects is not statistically significant.

To understand the participation result, we examine the underlying responses to the two civic activity questions. Afrobarometer asks whether respondents attended a community meeting or joined others to raise an issue during the preceding year. Among groups without prior representation, narrow winners are 19 percentage points less likely than narrow losers to report undertaking a given activity often and 16 percentage points more likely to report not having participated despite being willing to do so if given the chance. We find no corresponding evidence of greater unwillingness to participate. The contrast is therefore concentrated in realized civic activity rather than a general rejection of participation.

The negative civic participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups retains its sign and statistical significance across the bandwidths, country exclusions, and alternative controls examined, although its magnitude varies. Evidence that the effect differs by prior representation is less robust. The difference becomes smaller when we restrict the analysis to common support in local ethnic population shares and does not survive adjustment for multiple testing. Pooled across groups, we find no statistically significant average effects, although these estimates are imprecise. The evidence is therefore more consistent regarding the negative participation contrast among previously unrepresented groups than regarding the extent of heterogeneity between groups.

The combination of greater institutional trust and lower realized participation among narrow winners is consistent with two possible responses to electoral outcomes. Obtaining a co-ethnic representative may reduce the need for costly collective action if citizens expect the representative to advance their interests. Alternatively, groups that narrowly lose and remain without representation may mobilize more actively to pursue their demands. Our design identifies the difference between winning and losing, but cannot separately identify these responses, and the available pre-election comparisons are too imprecise to resolve the distinction. Nor do our measures directly reveal citizens' perceived returns to participation. The findings nevertheless suggest that political representation and direct civic engagement need not move together.

Our findings contribute to research on the political economy of ethnic representation. Existing work documents how co-ethnic officeholding affects the allocation of public resources and economic opportunities (Burgess et al. 2015; Franck and Rainer 2012; Kramon and Posner 2016; De Luca et al. 2018; Beiser-McGrath et al. 2021; Amodio et al. 2024). We examine a different dimension: citizens' own political engagement following electoral victory. We also document that ethnic competition among leading candidates is uncommon, limiting how frequently elections can change which group holds the constituency seat. These findings distinguish the benefits associated with holding political office from citizens' own efforts to exercise political influence.

We also contribute to research on descriptive representation and political participation, which examines how representation affects access to resources, political aspirations, and engagement with political institutions (Beaman et al. 2012; Clayton 2015; Bhalotra et al. 2018; Bagues and Campa 2021; Beach et al. 2024). Our analysis highlights the importance of distinguishing electoral victories that establish representation from those that preserve it. Among groups previously without a co-ethnic constituency representative, narrow victory is associated with lower realized civic participation despite greater institutional trust. This pattern is consistent with the possibility that representation substitutes for some forms of direct political action, although greater mobilization among narrow losers remains an alternative explanation. More broadly, the analysis highlights how citizens' participation incentives may depend on the political alternatives they face, rather than simply on whether a co-ethnic candidate wins office.

The remainder of the paper is organized as follows. Section 2 develops the conceptual framework. Section **??** describes the setting and data and documents ethnic competition on the ballot. Section 3 presents the empirical strategy. Section 4 reports the results. Section 5 concludes.

2 Political Representation and Civic Action

Political representation and direct civic participation provide distinct channels through which citizens pursue political influence. Citizen-candidate models emphasize that the identity of elected officials can affect political outcomes (Osborne and Slivinski 1996; Besley and Coate 1997). Yet the benefits citizens obtain through representation are distinct from the additional benefits of their own political engagement. As in the broader logic of collective action (Olson 1965), individuals may benefit from political outcomes without contributing to the efforts required to secure them. The decision to participate therefore depends, in part, on whether the expected benefits attributable to one's own action exceed its costs.[1]

Political representation can affect this marginal benefit in opposing directions. A representative

1. Consider an individual i who chooses whether to participate, $a_i \in \{0, 1\}$, at cost c_i. Let B_i denote the benefit from a desired political outcome, and let $q_i(a_i, R, H)$ denote its perceived probability conditional on participation, current co-ethnic representation R, and prior representation H. The individual participates if $B_i[q_i(1, R, H) - q_i(0, R, H)] \geq c_i$. Representation may change both the probability of obtaining the outcome without participation, $q_i(0, R, H)$, and the effectiveness of participation, $q_i(1, R, H)$. Its effect on participation consequently depends on how it changes the difference between these probabilities. This formulation illustrates an instrumental participation incentive rather than providing a complete model of collective mobilization.

who is receptive to constituents' demands may make civic engagement more effective, increasing the returns to participation. Descriptive representation may facilitate communication and the articulation of group interests, particularly where political relationships are characterized by mistrust (Mansbridge 1999). Consistent with this possibility, Bobo and Gilliam (1990) document greater political participation and efficacy among Black citizens in areas with Black political leadership. Alternatively, a representative may advance constituents' interests without requiring their direct involvement. If representation increases the likelihood that group interests are served even without collective action, the additional benefit of participating may decline. Representation can therefore complement or substitute for citizens' own political engagement.

Existing evidence is consistent with this ambiguity. Descriptive representation can encourage political aspirations and subsequent entry into office (Baskaran and Hessami 2018), but its effects on citizens' participation are mixed. Studies of gender and racial representation document limited or negative participation responses in some settings (Clayton 2015; Bhalotra et al. 2018; Gay 2001), while representation through legislators connected to local organizational networks may encourage engagement (Poertner 2023). These findings suggest that holding office for a group's member need not, by itself, increase citizens' participation. What matters is how representation changes the benefits of direct political action relative to relying on elected officials.

These incentives may also depend on a group's prior representation. Consider a constituency election between candidates from different ethnic groups. For a group that did not previously hold the seat, victory establishes co-ethnic representation, whereas defeat leaves the group without it. For a previously represented group, victory preserves representation, whereas defeat removes it. Although electoral victory produces the same contemporaneous distinction between holding and not holding the seat, the alternatives differ according to the group's previous political position. Entering representation may change citizens' incentives differently from retaining an existing representative, just as remaining without representation may elicit a different response from losing a previously held seat. Prior representation may therefore condition the participation response to electoral victory without determining its direction.

An important implication is that the effect of electoral victory cannot be interpreted independently of the response to defeat. Among previously unrepresented groups, lower participation by narrow winners relative to narrow losers may reflect reduced engagement following inclusion, greater mobilization among groups that remain without representation, or both. Continued exclusion may increase incentives to organize collective demands, while electoral defeat may instead discourage participation if citizens perceive political action as ineffective. Research on electoral winners and losers documents differences in political evaluations and responses to authority, including in African democracies (Anderson et al. 2005; Moehler 2009). Similarly, groups that lose existing representation may respond through greater mobilization or political withdrawal. Changes in political power can also affect participation among groups that lose influence (Bernini et al. 2025). The relevant empirical comparison is consequently between electoral victory and defeat, rather than between participation with and without representation in isolation.

Institutional confidence and civic engagement also need not respond in the same direction. Citizens may become more confident that political institutions will advance their interests without expecting their own participation to be more consequential. Conversely, citizens with less confidence in those institutions may participate more actively to press demands that they do not expect elected officials to address on their behalf. Institutional trust and civic participation thus capture distinct dimensions of political responses (cf. Marx et al. 2021). Moreover, willingness to participate need not translate into realized engagement when participation entails costs. These distinctions motivate examining institutional perceptions alongside reported civic activity and stated willingness to participate.

Responses may also evolve as citizens acquire experience with their representatives and update their assessments of political institutions (Bratton and Mattes 2001; Mattes and Bratton 2007; Stoelinga and Tähtinen 2026). We therefore examine differences between earlier and later post-election survey rounds, while recognizing that these comparisons need not identify changes in individual attitudes or participation over time.

Our empirical analysis estimates the consequences of narrowly winning rather than narrowly losing a co-ethnic constituency seat, separately by prior representation. Under the regression discontinuity identifying assumptions, these comparisons identify the local effect of electoral victory, not the separate behavioral responses of winners and losers or the causal effect of prior representation itself. Moreover, electoral victory determines which candidate and party hold office, rather than changing co-ethnicity while holding other candidate characteristics fixed. Our outcomes also do not directly measure citizens' perceived returns to political action or the substantive benefits delivered by their representatives. The framework therefore motivates the empirical comparisons and their interpretation without imposing a unique mechanism.

2.1 Setting

We study parliamentary constituency elections in Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda. In all four countries, the seats in our analysis are filled through first-past-the-post elections in single-member constituencies: the candidate receiving the most votes wins the seat.[2] When the two leading candidates belong to different ethnic groups, a narrow electoral victory determines which group holds the constituency seat, providing the threshold underlying our regression discontinuity design.

Our data cover 14 elections (Table 1): four in Kenya (2002–2017), four in Malawi (2004–2019), three in Nigeria (2011–2019), and three in Uganda (2006–2016). These are the elections for which candidate names are available and Afrobarometer respondents can be linked to the relevant electoral constituencies.

2. In Uganda, parliament also includes district woman representatives and seats reserved for special interest groups. We consider constituency races only.

Table 1: Elections, surveys, and data sources

Country	Election	Afrobarometer rounds	Ethnic composition source
Kenya	2002	2, 3	2003, 2008–09, 2014, 2015 MIS, 2022
	2007	4, 5	
	2013	6, 7	
	2017	8, 9	
Malawi	2004	3, 4	2000, 2004–05, 2010, 2012 MIS, 2014 MIS, 2015–16, 2017 MIS, 2024
	2009	5, 6	
	2014	7	
	2019	8, 9	
Nigeria	2011	5, 6	2008, 2010 MIS, 2013, 2015 MIS, 2018, 2021 MIS, 2023–24
	2015	7	
	2019	8, 9	
Uganda	2006	4	Population censuses 2002, 2014 (IPUMS)
	2011	5, 6	
	2016	7, 8	

Notes: Lower-chamber elections in single-member constituencies with results from the Constituency-Level Elections Archive (CLEA). Each Afrobarometer round is matched to the most recent legislative election before its fieldwork; the first round listed for an election is the first round conducted after it. Afrobarometer Round 2 has no ethnicity question; in Kenya, we proxy ethnicity in that round with the respondent's home language. For Kenya, Malawi, and Nigeria, the ethnic composition of constituencies comes from the Demographic and Health Surveys (DHS), including Malaria Indicator Surveys (MIS) where these record ethnicity and cluster locations; shares are pooled across the surveys listed. For Uganda, where only one DHS survey records both ethnicity and cluster locations, it comes from the 10 percent samples of the 2002 and 2014 population censuses distributed by IPUMS International.

2.2 Election results and candidate ethnicity

Constituency-level election results come from the Constituency-Level Elections Archive (CLEA), which records candidates' names, party affiliations, and vote shares, but not their ethnicity. We infer candidate ethnicity using a large language model that classifies candidates based on their names, constituency, and region. The model assigns each candidate to a group from a closed, country-specific list harmonized with Afrobarometer's ethnic categories. This allows us to identify races in which the two leading candidates belong to different ethnic groups and to match candidates to survey respondents.[3]

We assess classification accuracy using ethnic labels independently established from documentary sources, including biographies, news reports, and official profiles. For Nigeria, we have obtained such labels for 282 candidates. Among randomly selected candidates with unambiguous documentary classifications, the model agrees with the independently assigned ethnicity in 89 percent of cases. These Nigerian labels are used for validation rather than replacing the model's predictions in the analysis. A separate hand-coding exercise in randomly selected races in Kenya, Malawi, and

3. Candidates, survey respondents, and the ethnic-composition data described below use a common set of group labels. Where candidate names cannot reliably distinguish between groups, we combine the corresponding categories across sources, including Hausa and Fulani in Nigeria and Borana, Gabra, and Orma in Kenya.

Uganda has identified the ethnicity of 29 additional candidates. These labels replace the model's classifications, but none of the resulting changes affects a race in the analysis sample. Appendix A describes the classification procedure, harmonization, and validation in detail.

2.3 Survey data

Our outcomes come from geocoded Afrobarometer surveys, which interview nationally representative samples of adults face to face. We obtain respondents' ethnicity from their survey responses and harmonize the classifications across rounds.[4]

We assign respondents to electoral constituencies using the coordinates of their enumeration areas and constituency boundaries for the relevant election.[5] Each Afrobarometer round is matched to the most recent legislative election preceding its fieldwork (Table 1). Most elections are followed by two survey rounds, allowing us to observe outcomes at different intervals after the election.[6]

2.4 Local ethnic composition

We measure constituency-level ethnic composition using the Demographic and Health Surveys (DHS) in Kenya, Malawi, and Nigeria, and population census samples in Uganda. For the DHS, we assign survey clusters to constituencies using their geographic coordinates and calculate each ethnic group's local population share, pooling surveys that record ethnicity (Table 1). In Uganda, where geographically identified ethnicity is available in only one DHS survey, we instead use the 10 percent samples of the 2002 and 2014 population censuses, which identify respondents' ethnicity and (sub-)county of residence.

These measures are constructed independently of Afrobarometer, avoiding mechanical correlations arising from using the same survey respondents to measure political outcomes and local ethnic composition. Because we pool demographic data across survey years, including years after some of the elections, the resulting population shares are not strictly predetermined measures of constituency ethnic composition at the time of each election. We use them to characterize ethnic competition, assess the validity of the empirical design, and examine sensitivity to local ethnic composition, but not to define treatment. Appendix B describes their construction and geographic matching in detail.

4. Afrobarometer's ethnicity codes differ across rounds, so we assign groups using a round-specific crosswalk. Round 2 does not record ethnicity; for Kenya, we instead use respondents' home language, which agrees with self-reported ethnicity for 95 percent of Kenyan respondents in rounds that record both.
5. For Kenya and Uganda, we use the geographic correspondence of Amodio et al. (2024), mapping it back to pre-2010 constituencies for the Kenyan elections of 2002 and 2007. For Malawi, we use constituency boundaries from a shapefile. For Nigeria, we aggregate local government areas into federal constituencies separately for each election. In Uganda, the available geographic units sometimes encompass multiple constituencies, and the correspondence assigns each unit to a single constituency. This affects 86 of the 728 Ugandan respondents in the analysis sample. Appendix B provides further details on the geographic matching.
6. The first post-election round was fielded on average 1.5 years after the election, ranging from approximately two months to three years. Later rounds were fielded on average 3.8 years after the election, ranging from 2.3 to 4.8 years.

2.5 Ethnic competition on the ballot

We begin by documenting how often constituency elections can change which ethnic group holds the seat. Table 2 reports the ethnic composition of candidate slates in the 3,794 single-member constituency races with at least two candidates across the 14 elections. The winner and runner-up belong to different ethnic groups in only 13 percent of races, and just 7 percent combine this distinction with a winning margin below 20 percentage points. Ethnic competition among the leading candidates is therefore uncommon. Looking at entire candidate slates, only 29 percent of races have candidates from more than one classified ethnic group, a pattern that is similar across countries and elections. Because some candidates cannot be assigned an ethnicity, this share may understate ethnic competition. Even under an upper-bound assumption that treats each unclassified candidate as belonging to an additional ethnic group, however, only 39 percent of races would have ethnically mixed candidate slates.

One explanation for this limited ethnic competition is that many constituencies are dominated by a single ethnic group. To assess how much of the observed pattern can be accounted for by local demography, we compare candidate slates with a stylized benchmark in which the same number of candidates is drawn at random from the constituency's ethnic population, using the local ethnic shares described above. We restrict this comparison to races in which every candidate is assigned an ethnicity. Under this benchmark, 53 percent of races would have candidates from multiple ethnic groups, compared with 26 percent in the observed data. Similarly, the expected number of groups on the ballot is 1.94 under random candidacy, compared with 1.35 in the observed races. Candidate slates are therefore substantially less ethnically diverse than would be expected if candidacies reflected local ethnic population shares through random selection.

Figure 1 shows how this difference varies with local ethnic diversity. In the most homogeneous fifth of constituencies, the observed share of ethnically mixed races is close to the benchmark. The gap widens with local diversity: in the most diverse fifth, nearly every race would feature candidates from multiple groups under random candidacy, but only about half do so in the observed data. About half of races without observed ethnic competition occur in constituencies where one group accounts for at least 90 percent of the population. The remainder occur in more diverse constituencies, where observed candidate slates are substantially less diverse than the population-based benchmark would predict. Local ethnic composition therefore helps explain the limited competition between ethnic groups, but does not fully account for the observed composition of candidate slates under this benchmark.

2.6 Sample

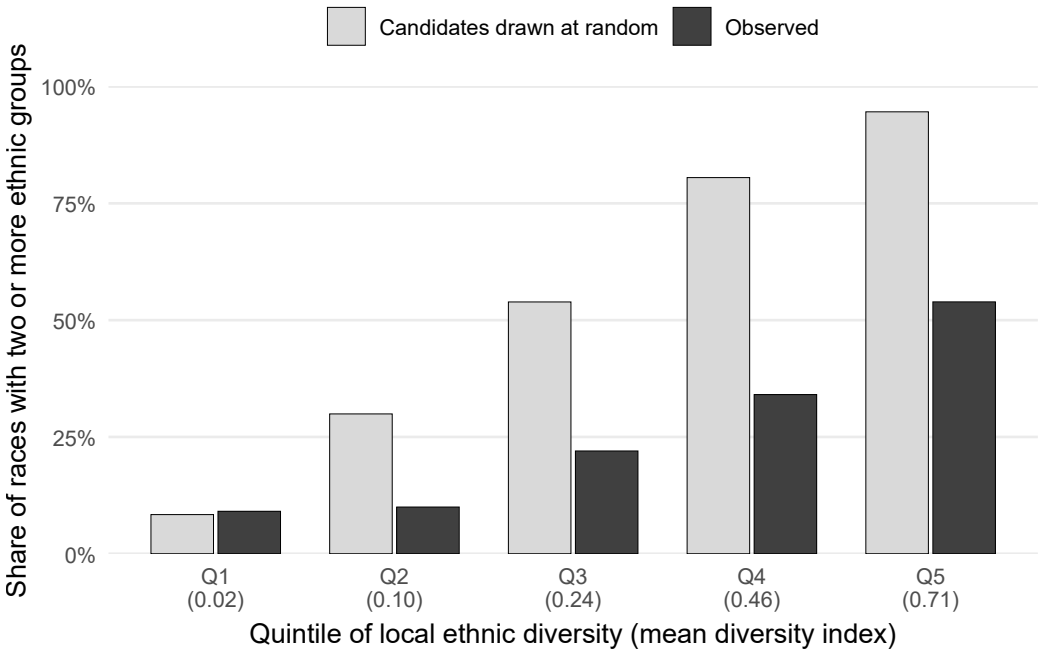
Table 3 summarizes the construction of the analysis sample. We begin with 3,794 single-member constituency races with at least two candidates across the 14 elections. We retain races in which the winner and runner-up are both assigned an ethnicity, belong to different ethnic groups, and the candidate with the largest recorded vote share holds the seat. This leaves 496 races (13 percent of

Table 2: Ethnic competition on the ballot

	All races					Fully assigned races				
		Mixed (%)		Top two differ (%)			Mixed (%)		Groups on ballot	
Country	Races	Assigned	Bound	All	Close	Races	Obs.	Random	Obs.	Random
Kenya	1,041	30	34	13	7	892	26	49	1.42	1.88
Malawi	759	33	58	13	7	418	28	70	1.39	2.23
Nigeria	1,051	28	35	12	5	869	24	48	1.31	1.89
Uganda	943	26	34	15	7	569	26	56	1.30	1.90
Total	3,794	29	39	13	7	2,748	26	53	1.35	1.94

Notes: All races: single-seat races with at least two candidates in the 14 elections (Table 3). Mixed, assigned: at least two ethnic groups among the candidates the model assigns to a group. Mixed, bound: upper bound that counts each unassigned candidate as a further group. Top two differ: the winner and the runner-up are assigned to different groups and the candidate with the most votes holds the seat; close: the vote-share gap between them is below 20 percentage points. Fully assigned races: races in which every candidate is assigned to a group and the constituency's ethnic composition is observed (DHS in Kenya, Malawi, and Nigeria; population census in Uganda). Random: the expected share of mixed races and the expected number of groups on the ballot if the same number of candidates were drawn at random from the constituency's population.

Figure 1: Ethnically mixed races: observed and under random candidacy



Notes: Races in which every candidate is assigned to an ethnic group and the constituency's ethnic composition is observed, grouped into quintiles of local ethnic diversity (one minus the sum of squared group shares; quintile means in parentheses). Observed: share of races with candidates of at least two groups. Candidates drawn at random: expected share if the same number of candidates were drawn at random from the constituency's population. Local shares come from the DHS in Kenya, Malawi, and Nigeria and from the population census in Uganda.

the total), of which 252 were decided by margins below 20 percentage points.

We then retain Afrobarometer respondents belonging to the ethnic group of either the winner or the runner-up. These are the two groups for which reversing the electoral outcome would change whether the constituency seat is held by a co-ethnic candidate. The resulting sample comprises 3,243 respondents in 340 ethnic-group-by-race cells across 236 races, with each race contributing one or two cells depending on which groups were surveyed. The regression discontinuity estimates use cells within outcome-specific bandwidths around the electoral cutoff.

Table 3: Sample: from legislative races to the top-two ethnic-pair design

		Races				Analysis sample		
Country	Elec.	All	Contested	Top two differ	of which close	Races	Cells	Respondents
Kenya	4	1,041	311 (30%)	136 (13%)	77	90	140	1,205
Malawi	4	759	251 (33%)	97 (13%)	55	41	62	762
Nigeria	3	1,051	291 (28%)	126 (12%)	50	56	74	548
Uganda	3	943	244 (26%)	137 (15%)	70	49	64	728
Total	14	3,794	1,097 (29%)	496 (13%)	252	236	340	3,243

Elections with matched Afrobarometer rounds. All: single-seat races with at least two candidates. Contested: at least two ethnic groups among the labelled candidates. Top two differ: winner and runner-up both labelled, from different ethnic groups, vote leader holds the seat (the eligible races). Of which close: eligible races in which the vote-share gap between winner and runner-up is below 20 points. Analysis sample: eligible races, close or not, where Afrobarometer sampled members of the winner's or runner-up's group, so its races are a subset of the eligible races rather than of the close ones; the estimator downweights races by their distance from the cutoff. Cells are group × race (at most two per race).

2.7 Outcomes

We examine citizens' civic engagement, their perceptions of political institutions, and broader political attitudes. Our central outcome is *civic participation*, an index combining responses to two Afrobarometer questions: whether respondents attended a community meeting or joined others to raise an issue during the preceding year. For each activity, respondents who participated report whether they did so once or twice, several times, or often; those who did not participate indicate whether they would do so if given the opportunity. The index thus combines reported participation frequency with stated willingness among nonparticipants. To distinguish realized activity from willingness to participate, we also examine the five response categories and cumulative participation thresholds in Section 4.2 and Appendix C.[7]

We construct two additional indices capturing perceptions of political institutions. *Responsiveness* combines respondents' assessments of how often members of parliament and local government councillors try their best to listen to people like them. *Trust in government-side institutions* combines trust in parliament, the local government council, and the ruling party. These indices capture perceptions of political institutions rather than direct assessments of the co-ethnic legislator or the benefits delivered by holding the constituency seat. Together with civic participation, they allow

7. For respondents interviewed within twelve months of an election, the preceding-year reference period partly predates the electoral outcome. Appendix Table C.6 reports estimates excluding these respondents.

us to examine whether electoral victory is associated with differences in citizens' own engagement, institutional confidence, or both.

We examine six further outcomes capturing democratic attitudes, perceived group treatment, political identity, and intended electoral participation. Three concern democracy: respondents' assessments of its *extent*, their *satisfaction with democracy*, and their *preference for democracy* over alternative forms of government. We also measure how frequently respondents perceive their ethnic group to be *treated unfairly* by the government and whether they *identify as national* rather than ethnic. Finally, we examine *intention to vote*, measured by whether respondents name a candidate or party they would support in a hypothetical presidential election rather than indicating that they would not vote.

The construction of the three indices is informed by an exploratory factor analysis of Afrobarometer items across the four countries (Appendix C). For each index, we standardize its constituent items within country, average the available standardized responses, and then normalize the resulting index using the mean and standard deviation among respondents belonging to the runner-up's ethnic group. The remaining outcomes are analyzed individually and standardized using the same reference group, except for voting intention, which is reported in percentage points.

Table 4 reports descriptive statistics for the analysis sample. Pooled across races, members of the winner's and runner-up's ethnic groups have broadly similar observed characteristics and outcome means. These unconditional comparisons do not account for electoral margins and should not be interpreted as effects of winning representation.

3 Empirical strategy

3.1 Design

Electoral success is not randomly assigned. A group's ability to elect a co-ethnic legislator may depend on its population size, political organization, electoral mobilization, and the characteristics of its candidates and parties. These factors may also shape citizens' political engagement and attitudes. Unconditional comparisons between members of winning and losing ethnic groups may therefore conflate the consequences of electoral victory with pre-existing differences between groups.

We address this identification problem using a regression discontinuity design based on close legislative elections. We restrict attention to races in which the two leading candidates belong to different ethnic groups. For ethnic group g in constituency j at election t, let v_{gjt} denote the vote share received by its candidate, and let $v_{-g,jt}$ denote the vote share received by the other leading candidate. The running variable is the signed vote-share margin,

$$m_{gjt} = v_{gjt} - v_{-g,jt}.$$

The treatment indicator is $D_{gjt} = \mathbf{1}\{m_{gjt} > 0\}$, equal to one when the group's candidate wins the constituency seat. Groups whose candidates narrowly win lie to the right of the cutoff, while those whose candidates narrowly lose lie to the left. When respondents from both ethnic groups

Table 4: Descriptive statistics

				Mean by group	
	N	Mean	SD	Winner's	Runner-up's
Responsiveness					
MP tries to listen (0–3)	2,984	0.66	0.83	0.63	0.70
Councillor tries to listen (0–3)	2,607	0.85	0.89	0.82	0.88
Trust: government side					
Trust parliament (0–3)	3,155	1.46	1.04	1.42	1.49
Trust local government (0–3)	2,940	1.37	1.03	1.33	1.41
Trust ruling party (0–3)	3,147	1.46	1.10	1.47	1.45
Civic participation					
Join others to raise an issue (0–4)	3,230	2.17	1.30	2.18	2.16
Attend community meeting (0–4)	3,229	2.29	1.26	2.25	2.33
Single items					
Extent of democracy (1–4)	2,979	2.60	0.85	2.59	2.60
Satisfaction with democracy (0–4)	3,020	2.42	0.97	2.41	2.43
Preference for democracy (1–3)	3,032	2.64	0.67	2.65	2.63
Own group treated unfairly (0–3)	3,061	0.94	1.02	0.95	0.93
Identify as national (1–5)	3,030	3.46	1.15	3.47	3.44
Would vote (0/1)	2,538	0.92	0.27	0.92	0.93
Covariates					
Age (years)	3,223	34.67	13.08	34.61	34.73
Female (0/1)	3,243	0.44	0.50	0.45	0.44
Education (0–9)	3,236	3.48	1.98	3.46	3.52
Urban (0/1)	3,243	0.29	0.45	0.28	0.30
Years since the election	3,243	2.62	1.36	2.64	2.59
Races					
Vote-share gap, winner minus runner-up (pp)	236	25.91	22.92		
Candidates in the race	236	7.53	4.52		
Local share of the winner's group (DHS/census)	236	0.29	0.31		
Local share of the runner-up's group (DHS/census)	236	0.30	0.30		

Notes: Analysis sample of the top-two ethnic-pair design: Afrobarometer respondents who belong to the ethnic group of the winner or of the runner-up in 236 races in Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda (3,243 respondents). Outcomes are shown on their original scales; in the analysis, items are expressed in standard deviations of the runner-up group's members and indices are standardized on the same group. Race-level variables are computed over the 236 races; local shares are constituency ethnic shares from pooled DHS surveys (Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria) or from the 2002 and 2014 censuses (Uganda), observed for all 236 races. The winner's-group and runner-up's-group means pool all races and are not estimates of the effect at the cutoff.

are observed, a race contributes two ethnic-group observations with margins of equal magnitude and opposite signs.

The unit of observation is an ethnic-group-by-race cell. For each cell, we calculate the unweighted mean outcome of Afrobarometer respondents belonging to that group in the constituency, pooling the survey rounds matched to the election.[8] We estimate

$$Y_{gjt} = \alpha + \tau D_{gjt} + \beta_1 m_{gjt} + \beta_2 D_{gjt} m_{gjt} + X'_{gjt}\gamma + \delta_{ct} + \varepsilon_{gjt}, \qquad |m_{gjt}| \leq h, \tag{1}$$

where Y_{gjt} is the cell mean outcome, X_{gjt} contains cell means of age, gender, education, urban residence, and years since the election, and δ_{ct} denotes country-by-election fixed effects.[9] The specification allows the relationship between electoral margins and outcomes to differ on either side of the cutoff.

We estimate equation (1) using local linear regression with a triangular kernel, weighting cells by their number of respondents. We select an outcome-specific mean squared error-optimal bandwidth (Calonico et al. 2014). We report conventional point estimates alongside robust bias-corrected standard errors, p-values, and 95 percent confidence intervals (Calonico et al. 2014; Calonico et al. 2019). Because the confidence intervals are centered on bias-corrected estimates, they need not be symmetric around the reported coefficients. Inference is clustered by electoral race to account for dependence between ethnic-group cells belonging to the same contest.

Identification requires continuity of the conditional expectations of potential outcomes in the signed electoral margin at the cutoff. Under this assumption, the discontinuity identifies the local effect of narrowly winning rather than narrowly losing the constituency seat. The coefficient τ captures this winner–loser contrast at $m_{gjt} = 0$. Because the estimator weights cells by their number of respondents, it gives greater influence to ethnic-group-by-race cells with larger survey samples rather than assigning equal weight to each group or electoral contest.

Two features of this estimand are important for interpretation. First, electoral victory determines not only whether a co-ethnic candidate holds the constituency seat, but also which candidate, party, and other political affiliations are represented (Marshall 2024). The estimated effect therefore captures the consequences of the electoral outcome as a whole, rather than the isolated effect of co-ethnicity holding other candidate characteristics fixed. Second, the estimand is local to close races between candidates of different ethnic groups and reflects outcomes reported by respondents interviewed from a few months to approximately five years after the election. The design identifies the consequences of victory relative to defeat, but does not separately identify changes in participation among winning and losing groups.

8. Treatment and the running variable are constant for all respondents belonging to the same ethnic group in a race. Aggregating respondents to cells retains the between-cell variation in electoral margins and treatment assignment while avoiding repeated individual observations at identical values of the running variable. The aggregation does not retain within-cell variation in individual outcomes or covariates. We do not apply Afrobarometer's national sampling weights within cells, as these are designed for nationally representative estimates rather than ethnic-group-by-constituency means.
9. Within each estimation window, we omit fixed effects that are constant or collinear with the other regressors among observations receiving positive weight.

3.2 Prior representation

Our main analysis examines whether the consequences of electoral victory differ according to a group's prior representation. We classify groups based on whether a co-ethnic candidate held the constituency seat after the previous election, linking constituencies geographically across elections.[10] For groups that did not previously hold the seat (the *transition* subsample), a narrow victory establishes co-ethnic representation, whereas defeat leaves the group without it. For previously represented groups (the *continuity* subsample), victory preserves representation, whereas defeat removes it. The winner–loser comparison therefore captures different changes in political position depending on whether the group previously held the seat.

We estimate equation (1) separately for the transition and continuity subsamples, selecting an outcome-specific bandwidth within each. To test for differences in the effects of electoral victory, we estimate a stacked regression in which the treatment effect, running-variable slopes, covariates, and fixed effects are fully interacted with prior representation. Each subsample retains its own bandwidth and kernel weights, so the estimated continuity-minus-transition difference equals the difference between the separate conventional RD coefficients. We cluster standard errors by electoral race and additionally assess differences between the bias-corrected estimates using a race-cluster bootstrap (Appendix Table E.1). These comparisons assess heterogeneity in the effects of electoral victory conditional on prior representation; they do not identify the causal effect of prior representation itself. For comparison, we also report pooled estimates using all cells, including those for which prior representation is unavailable.

3.3 Validity

The regression discontinuity design requires that potential outcomes evolve continuously with the electoral margin at the cutoff. We examine the plausibility of this assumption using tests for discontinuities in the distribution of electoral margins and in observed characteristics. Figure D.1 in Appendix D shows the distribution of the running variable. A density test using ethnic-group-by-race cells does not reject continuity at the cutoff ($p = 0.301$; Cattaneo et al. 2020). However, this test is partly uninformative by construction: when both groups in a race are observed, their margins have equal magnitudes and opposite signs. We therefore also conduct a race-level density test, retaining one observation per race and orienting the margin by the group with the larger local population share, measured using the DHS or census. This test likewise does not reject continuity ($p = 0.158$), nor do race-level tests at fixed bandwidths of up to 20 percentage points. These results provide no evidence of discontinuities in the distribution of electoral margins, although they cannot rule out differences in unobserved characteristics around the cutoff.

10. Constituency boundaries and identifiers change between elections. We link each constituency to its predecessor through the overlap of their boundaries and record whether a co-ethnic candidate won the predecessor seat. Predecessor election results are unavailable for the first elections in Kenya, Nigeria, and Uganda; for Malawi's 2004 election, we use the 1999 results. Overall, prior representation is observed for 255 of the 340 ethnic-group-by-race cells.

Table 5: Validity of the design

	Estimate	SE
Prior representation		
Group held the seat at the previous election	−0.044	0.107
Balance of predetermined characteristics		
Age	−1.519	2.753
Female	−0.015	0.057
Education	−0.148	0.391
Urban	0.132	0.202
Years since the election	−0.092	0.359
Own group's local share (DHS or census)	−0.158*	0.092
Own group is the locally largest group (DHS or census)	−0.223	0.182
Characteristics of the group's candidate		
Woman	0.042	0.052
Sitting member of parliament	−0.074	0.120
From the party of the president in office	0.220	0.286

Notes: Local-linear regression discontinuity estimates of each characteristic at the cutoff, with the estimator used for the outcomes. Respondent characteristics are weighted by the number of respondents in the cell; local-composition and candidate characteristics weight cells equally. Prior representation is observed for 255 of the 340 cells. Candidate characteristics refer to the candidate of the cell's own group. Gender is coded from the candidate's given name (observed for 329 cells). Sitting member of parliament: the candidate's name matches that of the seat holder after the previous election in the geographically linked constituency (observed for 260 cells; missing for the first election of each country's series). Party of the president: the candidate's party is the party of the head of state on election day (observed for 339 cells). Standard errors are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race. Density tests (Cattaneo et al. 2020), reported in the text, do not reject continuity of the running variable: $p = 0.301$ for the observed group cells and $p = 0.158$ for one observation per race, with the running variable oriented by the group with the larger local population share (DHS, or census in Uganda); at fixed bandwidths of up to 0.20, the race-level test gives p-values between 0.47 and 0.95. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table 5 examines whether observed characteristics differ discontinuously across the cutoff. We find no statistically detectable differences in respondents' age, gender, education, urban residence, or time since the election. Nor do we detect discontinuities in prior co-ethnic representation or in whether a group's candidate is a woman, the sitting member of parliament, or a member of the president's party. These results provide no clear evidence of discontinuities in the characteristics examined, although the tests are limited in precision and cannot establish the balance of unobserved determinants of political engagement. Moreover, respondent characteristics are measured after the election and are not strictly predetermined.

One exception concerns local ethnic composition. The estimated discontinuity in a group's constituency population share is −0.158, statistically significant at the 10 percent level, indicating that narrowly winning groups tend to have smaller local population shares than narrowly losing groups. We do not detect a corresponding discontinuity in whether the group is the locally largest ethnic group. Although population shares are measured independently of Afrobarometer and do not determine treatment assignment, differences in local ethnic composition may be associated with

political organization, electoral competition, and civic engagement. Moreover, the shares are constructed from pooled DHS and census data, including observations collected after some elections, and are therefore not strictly predetermined. In Section 4.5, we examine sensitivity to controlling for local ethnic composition and to restricting the sample to overlapping population-share distributions. The negative civic participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups is similar under both exercises. However, the estimated difference between previously represented and unrepresented groups becomes considerably smaller under the common-support restriction (Appendix Table E.4). The evidence for heterogeneity by prior representation should therefore be interpreted with this sensitivity in mind.

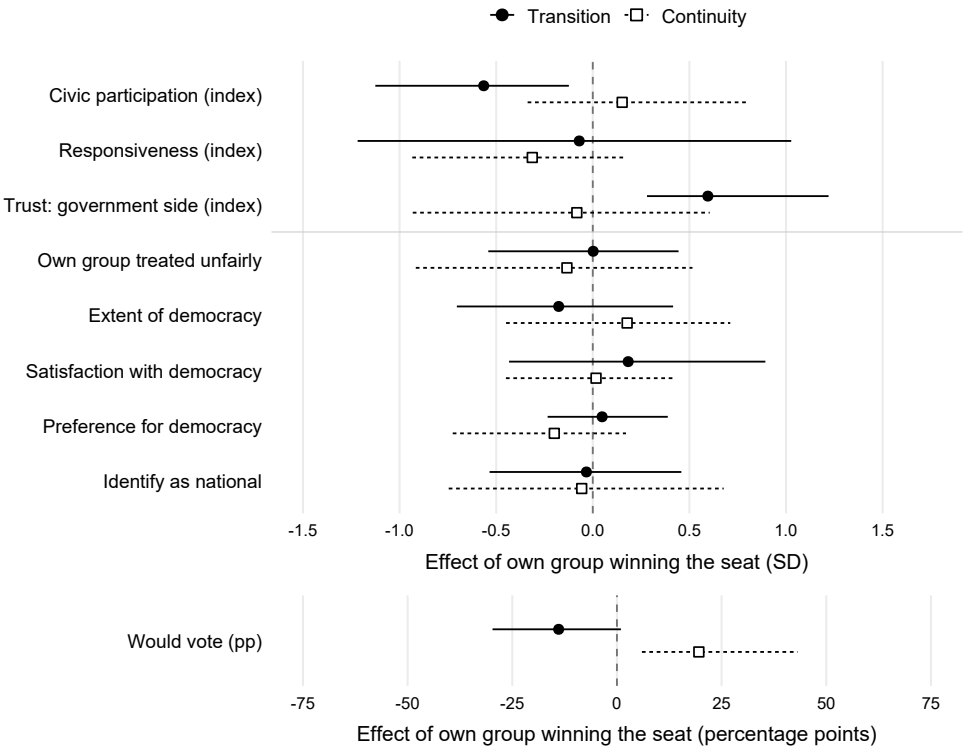
4 Results

4.1 Electoral victory and prior representation

We begin by examining whether the consequences of electoral victory differ according to a group's prior representation (Section 3.2). Figure 2 displays regression discontinuity estimates separately for groups that did not previously hold the constituency seat (transition) and groups that did (continuity). Table 6 reports these estimates and the differences between them. Each estimate compares members of ethnic groups whose candidates narrowly win with members of groups whose candidates narrowly lose. Outcomes are expressed in standard deviations of members of the runner-up's group, except for voting intention, which is reported in percentage points.

Our central finding is a substantial negative civic participation contrast among previously unrepresented groups. In this subsample, narrow winners report civic participation 0.565 standard deviations lower than narrow losers. Among previously represented groups, the estimated effect is positive but statistically insignificant (0.152 standard deviations). The continuity-minus-transition difference is 0.717 standard deviations, significant at the 5 percent level under conventional inference and at the 10 percent level under race-cluster bootstrap inference. The point estimates therefore suggest a more negative participation response to electoral victory among groups entering representation than among those previously represented.

Figure 2: Transition into and continuity of representation



Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates from Table 6, estimated separately for groups that did not hold the constituency seat at the previous election (transition) and groups that did (continuity), with robust bias-corrected 95 percent confidence intervals clustered by race. The horizontal line separates the three indices from the single items.

The negative participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups contrasts with a positive effect on institutional trust. In this subsample, narrow winners report trust in government-side institutions 0.595 standard deviations higher than narrow losers. Electoral victory is therefore associated with greater institutional confidence but lower civic participation among groups without prior representation. Among previously represented groups, the trust estimate is small and statistically insignificant. However, the difference in trust effects between the two subsamples is not statistically significant. The evidence does not establish that the institutional trust response differs by prior representation.

Voting intention also exhibits a contrasting pattern across the two subsamples. The estimated effect is -13.9 percentage points among previously unrepresented groups and 19.6 percentage points among previously represented groups. The difference is significant at the 10 percent level under conventional inference, but not under race-cluster bootstrap inference. We therefore interpret this heterogeneity cautiously. We find no statistically significant effects within either subsample for the remaining outcomes.

The results point to a negative participation contrast among previously unrepresented groups, accompanied by greater institutional trust. The evidence that the participation effect differs by

Table 6: Transition into and continuity of representation

	Transition					Continuity					Continuity − transition		
	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)	Diff.	SE	95% CI
Civic participation (index)	−0.565**	0.256	[−1.125, −0.124]	0.178	34/34	0.152	0.292	[−0.337, 0.806]	0.156	30/31	0.717**	0.349	[0.022, 1.411]
Responsiveness (index)	−0.070	0.572	[−1.217, 1.027]	0.301	50/46	−0.313	0.280	[−0.934, 0.161]	0.131	29/27	−0.243	0.328	[−0.893, 0.407]
Trust: government side (index)	0.595***	0.240	[0.281, 1.220]	0.138	27/30	−0.083	0.392	[−0.932, 0.605]	0.181	31/32	−0.678	0.411	[−1.495, 0.139]
Own group treated unfairly	0.002	0.251	[−0.541, 0.444]	0.169	34/34	−0.134	0.365	[−0.916, 0.516]	0.163	30/32	−0.136	0.374	[−0.879, 0.607]
Would vote (pp)	−13.9*	7.8	[−29.7, 0.9]	0.099	22/23	19.6***	9.5	[6.0, 43.2]	0.104	24/20	33.5*	17.2	[−1.0, 67.9]
Extent of democracy	−0.176	0.286	[−0.704, 0.416]	0.196	36/33	0.178	0.296	[−0.449, 0.712]	0.138	29/27	0.354	0.267	[−0.176, 0.885]
Satisfaction with democracy	0.183	0.338	[−0.433, 0.893]	0.180	34/34	0.017	0.222	[−0.449, 0.422]	0.148	30/30	−0.166	0.236	[−0.636, 0.303]
Preference for democracy	0.048	0.159	[−0.234, 0.388]	0.182	34/34	−0.199	0.229	[−0.725, 0.172]	0.149	30/30	−0.248	0.311	[−0.865, 0.370]
Identify as national	−0.033	0.253	[−0.534, 0.458]	0.176	34/34	−0.057	0.363	[−0.746, 0.677]	0.193	32/34	−0.024	0.326	[−0.672, 0.624]

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates of the effect of the respondent's own ethnic group narrowly winning rather than narrowly losing the seat. Sample: members of the winner's and the runner-up's ethnic groups in races where the two belong to different groups; Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda. Local linear regression on group-by-race cells with a triangular kernel, weighted by the number of respondents; controls for the cell means of age, gender, education, urban residence, and years since the election, and country-by-election fixed effects. Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors and 95 percent confidence intervals are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race; stars refer to the robust bias-corrected test. The interval is centered on the bias-corrected estimate and therefore need not be symmetric around the coefficient. Indices are standardized on members of the runner-up's group; single items are expressed in standard deviations of the same group, except would vote, which is in percentage points. BW: mean squared error optimal bandwidth on the margin of victory (a bandwidth of 0.10 corresponds to a 10-point vote-share margin). N (L/R): cells to the left and right of the cutoff within the bandwidth. Transition: cells of groups that did not hold the seat at the previous election in the geographically linked constituency; continuity: groups that did. Cells without an observed previous election are excluded. Each subsample is a separate regression discontinuity with its own bandwidth. The difference comes from both subsamples stacked in one weighted regression with all coefficients specific to the subsample, each at its own bandwidth, so that it equals the difference between the two estimates; its standard error is conventional and clustered by race, and its confidence interval uses the t distribution with the number of races minus one degrees of freedom. Table E.1 reports a race-cluster bootstrap of the bias-corrected difference. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

prior representation is less robust: Section 4.5 shows that the difference is sensitive to restrictions on local ethnic population shares and does not survive adjustment for multiple testing. We therefore distinguish the negative participation estimate within the transition subsample from the broader claim that prior representation systematically moderates the effect of electoral victory.

4.2 Frequency of civic participation

To characterize the participation result, we examine the five response categories underlying the civic participation index. Afrobarometer asks whether respondents attended community meetings or joined others to raise an issue during the preceding year. For each respondent, we calculate the share of these two activities reported in each category, from never participating and being unwilling to do so through participating often. Table 7 reports regression discontinuity estimates for these shares. The estimates describe differences in the distribution of responses between narrow winners and losers, rather than changes in individual respondents' behavior.

Among previously unrepresented groups, narrow winners report undertaking a given activity often 19.0 percentage points less frequently than narrow losers. Conversely, the share of activities for which respondents report no participation but willingness to participate if given the opportunity is 16.1 percentage points higher. Both estimates are statistically significant. We find no statistically detectable differences in the intermediate frequency categories or in responses indicating unwillingness to participate.

The cumulative thresholds in Appendix Table C.6 provide complementary evidence. Among previously unrepresented groups, narrow winners are 18.8 percentage points less likely to report having undertaken a given activity at least once. By contrast, the estimated difference in the share of activities that respondents either undertook or would undertake if given the chance is small and statistically insignificant. Together, these results indicate less realized civic participation among narrow winners, without corresponding evidence of a decline in willingness to participate.

The effect on frequent participation also differs across the prior-representation subsamples. The continuity-minus-transition difference is 23.6 percentage points and remains significant under race-cluster bootstrap inference. The corresponding difference in willingness without actual participation is not statistically significant. As with the participation index, these comparisons concern differences between groups of respondents rather than movements of individuals between response categories.

Because the two civic activity questions refer to the preceding year, the reference period partly predates the election for respondents interviewed within twelve months of it. Excluding these respondents leaves the transition estimate for frequent participation similar in magnitude (-19.4 percentage points) and statistically significant. The civic participation index estimate also remains similar (-0.575 standard deviations), although its standard error increases substantially and it is no longer statistically significant (Appendix Table C.6).

The combination of greater institutional trust and lower reported civic activity is consistent with representation reducing the need for costly collective action. Citizens may participate less if

Table 7: Civic participation by response category and prior representation

	Runner-up	RD estimate		Continuity − transition	
Response category	baseline (%)	Transition	Continuity	Difference	Bootstrap 95% CI
No, would never	5.9	2.7	−3.1	−5.8	[−22.9, 8.8]
		(5.2)	(4.5)	(5.4)	
Willing, did not participate	25.5	16.1***	−4.0	−20.0	[−60.0, 11.9]
		(5.2)	(13.6)	(12.9)	
Yes, once or twice	15.4	0.4	5.8	5.4	[−15.7, 28.2]
		(5.4)	(8.3)	(7.4)	
Yes, several times	24.3	−0.1	−3.3	−3.2	[−36.9, 19.2]
		(6.1)	(10.6)	(9.2)	
Yes, often	28.9	−19.0**	4.6	23.6**	[6.0, 55.7]**
		(9.1)	(7.1)	(10.0)	

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates, in percentage points, of the share of the two civic activities (attending a community meeting, joining others to raise an issue) that respondents report in each response category. For each respondent, this share is the fraction of the activities answered that fall in the category, so the estimates concern the average share of the two activities reported in a given category, not the proportion of respondents who give that answer for both activities. The categories are mutually exclusive and exhaustive, so the coefficients in each column sum to zero up to rounding. Each estimate is a winner-minus-loser contrast between the response distributions of two groups; it does not show that individual respondents moved between categories. Transition: groups that did not hold the seat at the previous election, for which winning establishes representation and losing leaves the group without it. Continuity: groups that held the seat, for which winning preserves representation and losing removes it. Runner-up baseline: mean share among members of the runner-up's group within the transition bandwidth, measured after the election (continuity: 5.4, 24.9, 17.3, 24.9, 27.6 percent). Sample and specification are those of Table C.6, panel A. Local linear regression on group-by-race cells with a triangular kernel, weighted by the number of respondents, with the cell means of age, gender, education, urban residence, and years since the election as controls and country-by-election fixed effects. Bandwidths on the margin of victory: 0.178 for transition, with 34 cells left and 34 right of the cutoff, and 0.156 for continuity, with 30 and 31 cells. Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race, and stars refer to the robust bias-corrected test. The difference comes from both subsamples stacked in one weighted regression with all coefficients specific to the subsample, each at its own bandwidth, so that it equals the difference between the two conventional estimates; its standard error is conventional and clustered by race, and stars use the t distribution with the number of races minus one degrees of freedom. Bootstrap interval: percentile interval of the difference between the bias-corrected estimates from 999 draws that resample whole races, so that a race contributing to both subsamples enters both or neither, with each subsample refitted at its fixed bandwidths. It need not be centered on the reported difference; stars on it refer to the percentile bootstrap test. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

they expect a co-ethnic representative to advance their interests without their direct involvement. However, the same winner–loser contrast could arise if groups that narrowly lose and remain without representation mobilize more actively to pursue their demands. Our regression discontinuity design cannot distinguish these responses. Appendix Table E.2 examines the available pre-election observations. Although the post-election participation estimate remains similar among cells with pre-election data, the pre-election comparisons and the estimated change in the discontinuity are too imprecise to separate the competing explanations reliably. The evidence therefore identifies a difference in relative civic engagement without establishing whether it reflects reduced participation among winners, greater mobilization among losers, or both.

4.3 Pooled estimates

For comparison, we also estimate the effect of narrowly winning a constituency seat pooling ethnic groups regardless of their prior representation, including groups for which prior representation is unavailable. Appendix Table C.3 reports these estimates, and Appendix Figure C.1 displays them. None of the nine pooled estimates is statistically significant. The estimated effect on civic participation is negative but imprecise, as are the estimates for institutional trust, perceived responsiveness, and the remaining political attitudes and outcomes. Because the pooled specification combines groups with different prior political positions and includes cells without observed prior representation, it addresses a different empirical comparison from the separate transition and continuity estimates.

The absence of statistically significant pooled estimates should not be interpreted as evidence of negligible effects (Abadie 2020). Confidence intervals for civic participation, institutional trust, and perceived responsiveness remain compatible with economically meaningful changes in either direction. Appendix Table C.5 reports approximate minimum detectable effects, calculated as 2.8 times the outcome-specific standard errors, corresponding to 80 percent power at the 5 percent significance level under a normal approximation. For most individual items, these magnitudes exceed the interquartile range of ethnic-group mean outcomes within countries and elections. Precision is particularly limited for voting intention, whose selected bandwidth contains only 26 races and whose approximate minimum detectable effect is 45 percentage points, relative to a mean of 92 percent among members of the runner-up's group.

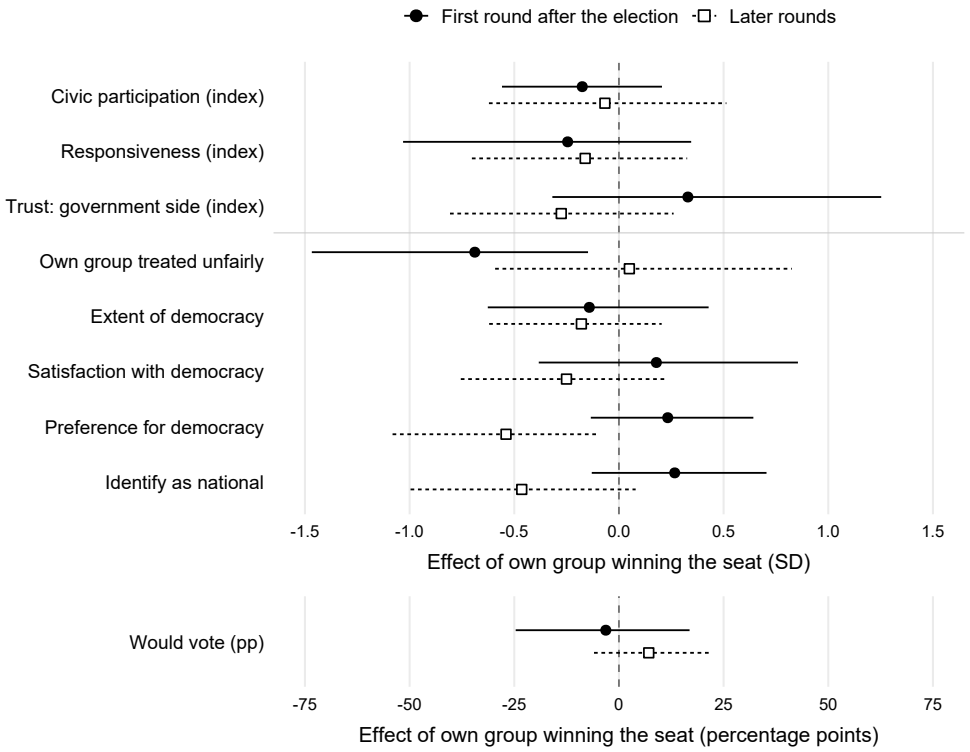
The pooled estimates therefore cannot rule out substantial effects of electoral victory. Nor do they establish whether the effects differ by prior representation. That question is addressed by the separate estimates and their comparison in Section 4.1, with the sensitivity of the evidence examined in Section 4.5.

4.4 Differences across post-election survey rounds

We also examine whether the winner–loser contrasts vary across post-election survey rounds. Political attitudes may respond differently as citizens acquire experience with elected representatives, although changes in the composition of surveyed respondents and elections may also affect these

comparisons. We estimate separate regression discontinuities for respondents interviewed in the first Afrobarometer round following an election and those interviewed in later rounds. As the comparison is defined by survey timing, we exclude years since the election from the covariates. We estimate differences between the two subsamples using the procedure described in Section 3.2, with race-cluster bootstrap inference reported in Appendix Table E.1. Figure 3 displays the estimates, and Table 8 reports them together with the differences between periods.

Figure 3: Representation and post-election survey timing



Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates from Table 8, estimated separately for respondents interviewed in the first Afrobarometer round following an election and in later rounds, with robust bias-corrected 95 percent confidence intervals clustered by race. The horizontal line separates the three indices from the single items.

The estimated winner–loser contrasts for institutional trust and preference for democracy are less positive in later survey rounds. For trust in government-side institutions, the estimate is 0.329 standard deviations in the first round and −0.276 in later rounds, a difference of −0.605 standard deviations. For preference for democracy, the corresponding estimates are 0.233 and −0.539 standard deviations, a difference of −0.772 standard deviations. Both differences are statistically significant under conventional inference and remain significant at the 10 percent level under race-cluster bootstrap inference. The estimates for institutional trust are not individually distinguishable from zero in either period, whereas the negative estimate for preference for democracy in later rounds is statistically significant.

The other outcomes provide less consistent evidence of differences across survey rounds. We

Table 8: Representation and time since the election

	First round after the election					Later rounds					Later − first		
	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)	Diff.	SE	95% CI
Civic participation (index)	−0.175	0.195	[−0.559, 0.206]	0.194	59/63	−0.067	0.289	[−0.621, 0.513]	0.139	41/40	0.108	0.317	[−0.521, 0.737]
Responsiveness (index)	−0.245	0.351	[−1.031, 0.345]	0.175	55/58	−0.161	0.262	[−0.702, 0.326]	0.172	48/45	0.084	0.277	[−0.466, 0.633]
Trust: government side (index)	0.329	0.401	[−0.318, 1.253]	0.180	56/58	−0.276	0.273	[−0.807, 0.261]	0.126	41/38	−0.605*	0.308	[−1.216, 0.006]
Own group treated unfairly	−0.689**	0.337	[−1.467, −0.148]	0.087	38/32	0.050	0.362	[−0.591, 0.826]	0.155	46/42	0.738	0.475	[−0.206, 1.683]
Would vote (pp)	−3.1	10.6	[−24.7, 16.9]	0.232	67/68	7.1	7.1	[−6.0, 22.0]	0.179	46/43	10.3*	5.5	[−0.6, 21.1]
Extent of democracy	−0.142	0.269	[−0.627, 0.428]	0.122	48/44	−0.179	0.210	[−0.620, 0.204]	0.158	46/42	−0.038	0.314	[−0.661, 0.585]
Satisfaction with democracy	0.179	0.316	[−0.383, 0.855]	0.108	43/39	−0.251	0.250	[−0.755, 0.223]	0.062	24/18	−0.429	0.356	[−1.140, 0.281]
Preference for democracy	0.233	0.198	[−0.134, 0.642]	0.164	54/55	−0.539**	0.250	[−1.081, −0.103]	0.093	33/25	−0.772***	0.272	[−1.313, −0.231]
Identify as national	0.266	0.213	[−0.130, 0.705]	0.206	62/65	−0.464*	0.274	[−0.995, 0.080]	0.093	33/25	−0.731*	0.407	[−1.537, 0.076]

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates of the effect of the respondent's own ethnic group narrowly winning rather than narrowly losing the seat. Sample: members of the winner's and the runner-up's ethnic groups in races where the two belong to different groups; Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda. Local linear regression on group-by-race cells with a triangular kernel, weighted by the number of respondents; controls for the cell means of age, gender, education, and urban residence, and country-by-election fixed effects. Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors and 95 percent confidence intervals are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race; stars refer to the robust bias-corrected test. The interval is centered on the bias-corrected estimate and therefore need not be symmetric around the coefficient. Indices are standardized on members of the runner-up's group; single items are expressed in standard deviations of the same group, except would vote, which is in percentage points. BW: mean squared error optimal bandwidth on the margin of victory (a bandwidth of 0.10 corresponds to a 10-point vote-share margin). N (L/R): cells to the left and right of the cutoff within the bandwidth. Years since the election is not controlled for, since the split is defined by survey timing. First round: the earliest Afrobarometer round after the election; later rounds: all other rounds matched to it (none for Malawi 2014, Nigeria 2015, and Uganda 2006). Each subsample is a separate regression discontinuity with its own bandwidth. The difference comes from both subsamples stacked in one weighted regression with all coefficients specific to the subsample, each at its own bandwidth, so that it equals the difference between the two estimates; its standard error is conventional and clustered by race, and its confidence interval uses the t distribution with the number of races minus one degrees of freedom. Table E.1 reports a race-cluster bootstrap of the bias-corrected difference. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

find no statistically significant differences between periods for civic participation, perceived responsiveness, the extent of democracy, or satisfaction with democracy. Estimates for perceived unfair treatment, national identification, and voting intention vary across rounds, but their differences are not consistently supported by conventional and bootstrap inference. More broadly, none of the survey-period differences survives adjustment for multiple testing across the outcomes examined (Appendix Table E.6).

These comparisons do not identify how the effects of electoral victory evolve over time. Afrobarometer interviews different respondents across rounds, some elections contribute observations to only one survey period, and the first and later rounds cover overlapping intervals since the election. Differences between the estimates may therefore reflect changes in sample composition rather than changes in political responses. The results provide descriptive evidence of variation in winner–loser contrasts across survey periods, particularly for institutional attitudes, but do not establish belief updating or changing incentives for civic participation.

4.5 Robustness

We assess the robustness of the estimates by prior representation to bandwidth choice, country composition, and local ethnic population shares. We also examine pre-election outcomes. Table 9 reports alternative specifications, while Figure 4 shows sensitivity to bandwidth choice. Additional results, including common-support restrictions, pre-election comparisons, and multiple-testing adjustments, appear in Appendix E.2. We focus on two findings: the negative civic participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups and the positive difference between the transition and continuity estimates.

Bandwidth sensitivity. We re-estimate the specifications using 14 common fixed bandwidths from 0.04 to 0.30, in increments of 0.02, corresponding to electoral margins of 4 to 30 percentage points. Among previously unrepresented groups, the estimated effect on civic participation is negative and statistically significant at the 10 percent level at every bandwidth. The continuity-minus-transition difference is also positive and significant at the 10 percent level throughout under conventional race-clustered inference (Appendix Figure E.2); these differences have not been assessed using bootstrap inference. The magnitudes are nevertheless sensitive to bandwidth choice. As the bandwidth widens, the transition estimate declines in absolute value from -1.79 to -0.37 standard deviations, while the estimated difference declines from 3.92 to 0.43 standard deviations. Estimates at the narrowest bandwidths rely on few cells relative to the number of parameters and are particularly imprecise as measures of effect size. The direction of the estimated participation contrast is therefore more stable than its magnitude.

The response-category estimates show a similar pattern. Among previously unrepresented groups, narrow winners consistently report less frequent civic activity and a larger share of activities for which they did not participate but would have done so if given the opportunity. The positive institutional trust estimate in this subsample is statistically significant at bandwidths be-

tween 0.08 and 0.24, although the difference in trust effects between subsamples is not significant at any bandwidth. The remaining outcomes, including voting intention, exhibit less consistent patterns.

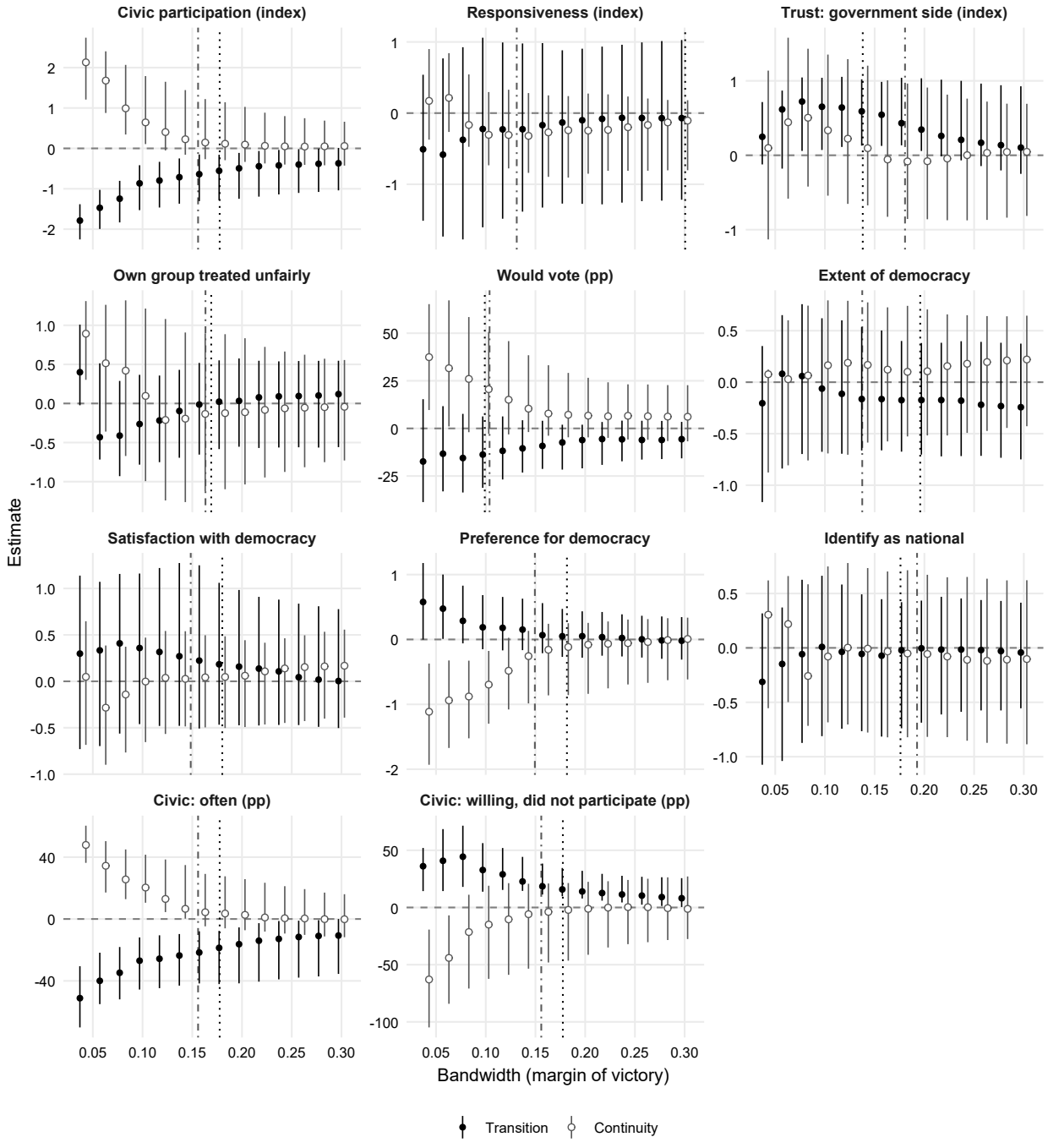
Leaving out one country at a time. Columns 2–5 of Table 9 exclude each country in turn. With reselected bandwidths, the negative civic participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups remains statistically significant in all four specifications, as do the estimates for less frequent participation and a higher share of responses indicating willingness without actual participation. The continuity-minus-transition difference remains positive but becomes imprecise when Kenya is excluded. This exclusion removes approximately half the observations near the cutoff; the difference remains significant at the 10 percent level using the original bandwidths, but not after bandwidth reselection. Bootstrap inference also provides less consistent support for the difference across country exclusions. The positive institutional trust estimate in the transition subsample remains significant in all four samples, while voting intention and several democratic attitudes are more sensitive to country composition.

Local ethnic composition. The validity tests reveal that narrowly winning groups tend to have smaller local population shares than narrowly losing groups. Column 6 of Table 9 therefore adds the group's constituency population share and an indicator for whether it is the locally largest group to the covariates. The estimated civic participation effect among previously unrepresented groups remains negative (-0.618 standard deviations), and the continuity-minus-transition difference remains positive (0.878 standard deviations). The latter is significant at the 10 percent level under both conventional and race-cluster bootstrap inference. The positive institutional trust estimate in the transition subsample also changes little. These estimates use the same sample as the main specification, although the selected bandwidths differ.

We also examine whether the estimates depend on differences in the distributions of local ethnic population shares. Within each prior-representation subsample, we restrict observations to the overlap of the 5th–95th percentile ranges of population shares among narrowly winning and losing groups, holding the bandwidths of the main estimates fixed (Appendix Table E.4). The transition estimate remains similar (-0.587 standard deviations), but the continuity estimate becomes negative (-0.320), reducing the difference to 0.267 standard deviations ($p = 0.514$). This change arises primarily from excluding previously represented groups with very large local population shares, particularly those that narrowly lost the seat. The result indicates that the estimated heterogeneity is sensitive to local demographic composition. The available evidence cannot establish whether differences in participation responses are attributable to prior representation, local ethnic population shares, or their interaction.

Pre-election comparisons. Finally, we examine whether subsequently winning and losing groups differed before the election, using earlier Afrobarometer surveys matched to the same ethnic-group-by-constituency cells. Pre-election observations are available for only 64 of 134 transition

Figure 4: Bandwidth sensitivity by prior representation



Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates using the specification of Table 6, estimated separately for groups without prior representation (transition, filled circles) and groups with prior representation (continuity, open circles). Fixed estimation and bias bandwidths are equal and range from 0.04 to 0.30. Confidence intervals use robust bias-corrected inference clustered by electoral race. Vertical lines mark the mean squared error-optimal bandwidths used in Table 6 (dotted: transition; dash-dotted: continuity). Indices and single items are expressed in standard deviations of members of the runner-up's group, except voting intention and the two civic participation response categories, which are reported in percentage points.

cells and 74 of 121 continuity cells. Within the selected bandwidths, the placebo regressions contain few observations relative to the number of parameters, limiting the reliability of analytic inference. Race-cluster bootstrap inference is also unstable in these small samples.

The pre-election civic participation estimate in the transition subsample is relatively small, but its confidence interval includes differences comparable in magnitude to the main post-election estimate. Several other outcomes exhibit apparent pre-election discontinuities under analytic inference, which the available data cannot reliably distinguish from sampling variation. Appendix Table E.5 reports the full results with analytic confidence intervals but without significance markers. These comparisons therefore neither establish pre-election balance nor provide decisive evidence against it.

Overall, the negative civic participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups is the most consistent finding across the robustness exercises, although its magnitude depends on bandwidth choice and some restricted samples yield less precise estimates. Evidence that the effect of electoral victory differs by prior representation is less robust, particularly to restrictions on local ethnic population shares. Moreover, none of the nine outcome-specific heterogeneity tests survives adjustment for multiple testing (Appendix Table E.6). These findings qualify the evidence for systematic heterogeneity by prior representation, while leaving the negative civic participation contrast among previously unrepresented groups comparatively stable across the reported specifications.

Table 9: Robustness of the estimates by prior representation

	(1) Main estimate		(2) Without Kenya		(3) Without Malawi		(4) Without Nigeria		(5) Without Uganda		(6) Local ethnic composition	
	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE	Coef.	SE
A. Transition: group did not hold the seat at the previous election												
Civic participation (index)	−0.565**	0.256	−1.104***	0.351	−0.528**	0.235	−0.719***	0.264	−0.808**	0.392	−0.618***	0.246
Responsiveness (index)	−0.070	0.572	−0.289	0.181	0.048	0.477	−0.104	0.548	−0.096	0.758	−0.064	0.542
Trust: government side (index)	0.595***	0.240	0.648**	0.349	0.534**	0.271	0.624***	0.230	0.563**	0.284	0.606***	0.238
Own group treated unfairly	0.002	0.251	0.257	0.239	−0.216	0.298	−0.002	0.265	−0.081	0.175	0.038	0.254
Would vote (pp)	−13.9*	7.8	4.0	6.2	−16.5	12.0	−9.2	10.4	−14.7	10.8	−7.9	6.4
Extent of democracy	−0.176	0.286	−0.293	0.305	0.236*	0.175	−0.183	0.306	−0.465	0.386	−0.118	0.276
Satisfaction with democracy	0.183	0.338	0.130	0.228	0.389**	0.214	0.250	0.390	0.177	0.358	0.264	0.326
Preference for democracy	0.048	0.159	0.190	0.234	−0.152	0.147	0.164	0.207	0.377	0.336	0.179	0.250
Identify as national	−0.033	0.253	−0.440	0.321	0.182	0.258	0.006	0.262	0.010	0.250	−0.152	0.219
Civic: often (pp)	−19.0**	9.1	−37.4***	10.8	−19.7***	5.9	−23.3**	11.3	−22.8**	10.7	−18.6***	8.5
Civic: willing, did not participate (pp)	16.1***	5.2	27.2***	8.5	27.2***	11.1	22.1***	5.6	24.0***	11.2	16.3***	5.8
B. Continuity: group held the seat at the previous election												
Civic participation (index)	0.152	0.292	0.106	0.257	0.190	0.448	0.142	0.277	0.274	0.401	0.260	0.308
Responsiveness (index)	−0.313	0.280	−0.483	0.413	−0.076	0.367	−0.316	0.304	−0.322	0.302	−0.315	0.270
Trust: government side (index)	−0.083	0.392	0.224	0.535	0.085	0.426	−0.073	0.409	−0.215	0.496	0.055	0.419
Own group treated unfairly	−0.134	0.365	0.130	0.519	−0.033	0.397	−0.121	0.318	−0.112	0.366	−0.087	0.363
Would vote (pp)	19.6***	9.5	6.5	6.7	9.2	7.7	7.1	7.3	13.3**	8.4	8.0	7.3
Extent of democracy	0.178	0.296	0.311	0.390	0.294	0.325	0.176	0.294	0.007	0.267	0.161	0.307
Satisfaction with democracy	0.017	0.222	−0.097	0.446	0.125	0.199	0.032	0.222	−0.089	0.209	0.018	0.219
Preference for democracy	−0.199	0.229	0.556***	0.208	−0.372**	0.221	−0.236	0.240	−0.555***	0.249	−0.263	0.212
Identify as national	−0.057	0.363	−0.708	0.547	−0.221	0.379	−0.058	0.361	0.139	0.400	0.009	0.318
Civic: often (pp)	4.6	7.1	−5.4	10.3	8.9	6.3	4.3	6.5	6.5	9.4	8.0	7.1
Civic: willing, did not participate (pp)	−4.0	13.6	−12.5	10.5	−6.5	18.4	−3.7	13.7	−5.8	17.9	−6.0	14.0
C. Continuity minus transition												
Civic participation (index)	0.717**	0.349	1.209	0.791	0.718**	0.357	0.861**	0.380	1.082*	0.619	0.878*	0.443
Responsiveness (index)	−0.243	0.328	−0.195	0.363	−0.124	0.391	−0.212	0.367	−0.227	0.345	−0.251	0.351
Trust: government side (index)	−0.678	0.411	−0.424	0.497	−0.449	0.501	−0.697	0.454	−0.778*	0.456	−0.551	0.434
Own group treated unfairly	−0.136	0.374	−0.128	0.598	0.183	0.496	−0.119	0.359	−0.032	0.544	−0.125	0.398
Would vote (pp)	33.5*	17.2	2.5	9.9	25.8**	12.0	16.3	11.7	28.0*	14.6	15.9	12.1
Extent of democracy	0.354	0.267	0.604	0.538	0.057	0.344	0.359	0.286	0.472	0.368	0.279	0.259
Satisfaction with democracy	−0.166	0.236	−0.227	0.535	−0.264	0.275	−0.219	0.247	−0.266	0.330	−0.246	0.265
Preference for democracy	−0.248	0.311	0.366	0.468	−0.221	0.316	−0.401	0.345	−0.932**	0.366	−0.442	0.410
Identify as national	−0.024	0.326	−0.268	0.509	−0.403	0.382	−0.064	0.327	0.128	0.322	0.161	0.307
Civic: often (pp)	23.6**	10.0	32.0	24.8	28.6***	10.7	27.6**	11.5	29.3*	17.5	26.6**	11.9
Civic: willing, did not participate (pp)	−20.0	12.9	−39.7**	17.1	−33.7**	15.0	−25.8**	12.5	−29.8	21.0	−22.3	16.1

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates of the effect of the respondent's own ethnic group narrowly winning rather than narrowly losing the seat, with the specification of Table 6: local-linear fits on ethnic-group-by-race cells, triangular kernel weights multiplied by the number of respondents in the cell, the covariates and country-by-election fixed effects of the main specification, and clustering by race. Transition: groups that did not hold the constituency seat at the previous election; continuity: groups that did. Panels A and B report conventional coefficients with robust bias-corrected standard errors and significance tests. Panel C reports the difference between the two conventional coefficients, from a stacked regression in which all coefficients are specific to the subsample, with conventional standard errors clustered by race. Column (1) reproduces Tables 6 and 7. Columns (2) to (5) drop one country at a time. Column (6) adds the group's local population share and an indicator for the locally largest group to the covariates; the shares come from pooled DHS surveys (censuses in Uganda), including waves collected after the elections, so they are not strictly predetermined. Columns (2) to (6) reselect the estimation and bias bandwidths separately for each outcome and subsample; the two civic participation response categories use the bandwidths of the civic participation index. Indices and single items are in standard deviations of members of the runner-up's group; would vote and the response categories (share of the two civic activities done often, or not done but would be done if given the chance) are in percentage points. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

5 Conclusion

Political representation can change not only whose interests are advanced in government, but also citizens' incentives to engage in politics themselves. Using close legislative elections between candidates of different ethnic groups in Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda, we examine how narrowly winning a co-ethnic constituency seat affects civic participation and political attitudes, and whether these effects differ according to a group's prior representation.

Among groups that did not previously hold the constituency seat, narrow winners report substantially less civic participation and greater trust in government-side institutions than narrow losers. The estimated participation effect is -0.565 standard deviations, while the institutional trust effect is 0.595 standard deviations. The participation estimate is more negative than that for previously represented groups, with a statistically significant difference in the baseline specification. However, evidence of heterogeneity is sensitive to restrictions on local ethnic population shares and multiple-testing adjustments. The negative participation estimate among previously unrepresented groups is more consistent across bandwidths, country exclusions, and specifications controlling for local ethnic composition.

Examining the response categories underlying civic participation, we find that the negative estimate reflects lower reported activity rather than a detectable increase in unwillingness to participate. Among previously unrepresented groups, narrow winners report undertaking fewer activities at least once and fewer activities often, while a larger share of responses indicate willingness to participate despite not having done so. This pattern is consistent with representation reducing the need for costly collective action when citizens expect elected officials to advance their interests. Equally, it could reflect greater mobilization among groups that narrowly lose and remain without representation. Our design identifies the effect of victory relative to defeat but cannot separate these responses, and the available pre-election evidence is too imprecise to resolve this distinction.

We also document that electoral competition between ethnic groups is uncommon. The two leading candidates belong to different ethnic groups in only 13 percent of constituency races, and observed candidate slates are substantially less ethnically diverse than a benchmark based on random selection from local ethnic populations. Electoral opportunities to gain co-ethnic representation therefore depend not only on which candidates win, but also on which groups are represented among the candidates.

Together, these findings highlight a distinction between political representation and political engagement. Winning a constituency seat can coincide with greater confidence in political institutions without greater participation in collective political activity. Understanding the consequences of political inclusion therefore requires attention not only to who gains representation, but also to how electoral victory and defeat change citizens' incentives to act on their own behalf.

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A Measuring candidate ethnicity

A.1 Procedure

Electoral records do not report candidates' ethnicity. We therefore classify candidates using a large language model, `claude-haiku-4-5`, based on their names and geographic context. The classification covers all candidates recorded in the Constituency-Level Elections Archive (CLEA) for elections that can be matched to Afrobarometer surveys. Table A.1 summarizes coverage for the 14 elections included in the analysis.

We classify candidates in batches of 25, providing the model with each candidate's name, constituency, and region. The model assigns an ethnicity from a closed, country-specific list using a constrained-output schema. These lists are derived from Afrobarometer's ethnic categories, combining groups where names do not permit reliable distinctions. This allows candidate and respondent ethnicity to be harmonized. Following an initial classification in Nigeria, we expanded the list to distinguish minority groups that had been subsumed under broader categories. Each list includes a residual *Other / Ambiguous* category.

The model also returns the name token used to inform its classification and a confidence score; we do not exclude assignments based on this score. Classifications were obtained through the Anthropic API using the default temperature and structured output. Because model predictions may vary across runs, the replication files contain the candidate-level classifications, prompts, and scripts.

A.2 Coverage

Table A.1 summarizes classification coverage across the four countries. Residual assignments range from 2.0 percent of candidates in Kenya to 9.6 percent in Malawi. At least 96 percent of Afrobarometer respondents can be mapped to an ethnic category in the candidate classification scheme. Model-reported confidence varies across countries, but we do not use these scores to determine sample inclusion.

A.3 Hand-coded labels and validation

We independently assign ethnic labels to 282 Nigerian candidates using documentary sources, including biographies, news reports, and official profiles. These labels are used for validation; the analysis retains the model's classifications. Candidates were selected from three samples: a random sample, a targeted sample of winners and runners-up in ethnically contested races assigned low confidence by an earlier name-based classifier, and an additional sample covering smaller ethnic groups.

We evaluate classification accuracy using the random sample, since the two targeted samples are not representative of the candidate population. Among candidates with unambiguous hand-coded labels, the model agrees with the independent classification in 88.9 percent of cases (95 percent Wilson confidence interval: 77.8–94.8 percent). Agreement is similar among winners and runners-up in the first targeted sample.

Classification errors can affect both which elections are identified as ethnically contested and how respondents are assigned to winning and losing groups. In particular, misclassifying minority candidates as members of larger groups may create spurious co-ethnic matches or obscure competition between ethnic groups. Expanding the Nigerian classification scheme to distinguish smaller groups reduced such misclassifications from 10 to 6 among the 135 candidates in the random and first targeted samples, without materially changing overall agreement.

Table A.1: Candidate ethnicity classification and coverage

Panel A. Candidates

				Labels		Residual	Confidence	
Country	Elections	Races	Candidates	Available	Used	(%)	Median	≥ 0.85 (%)
Kenya	4	1,041	7,816	21	19	2.0	0.89	75.2
Malawi	4	759	4,930	18	13	9.6	0.80	23.9
Nigeria	3	1,051	8,104	59	52	3.0	0.75	31.4
Uganda	3	943	4,123	34	30	2.8	0.82	44.2
Total	14	3,794	24,973					

Panel B. Afrobarometer respondents

	Ethnic categories	Respondents	Mapped to a label (%)
Kenya	57	13,189	99.5
Malawi	18	10,413	99.9
Nigeria	84	14,840	96.0
Uganda	41	14,073	99.9

Notes: Panel A covers candidates in the 3,794 single-member constituency races with at least two candidates in the 14 elections reported in Table 3. Available labels are the country-specific classification categories; used labels are those assigned to at least one candidate. Residual denotes assignments to *Other / Ambiguous*. Confidence statistics are based on model-reported scores. The classification exercise also covers Malawi's 1999 and Uganda's 2021 elections, as well as excluded races with a single candidate or outside ordinary single-member constituencies, yielding 4,636 races across 16 elections. Panel B covers Afrobarometer respondents in the corresponding survey rounds, before restricting to the analysis sample. Mapped to a label is the share of respondents whose ethnic category can be matched to the candidate classification scheme.

The reported validation results cover Nigeria only. Although Nigeria has the largest number of classification categories, these results do not establish accuracy in the other countries, where naming conventions may present different challenges, such as the overlap among Chewa, Nyanja, and Lomwe names in Malawi. In a separate exercise, we are hand-coding all candidates in 20 randomly selected races per country. To date, this exercise has yielded labels for 29 candidates in Kenya, Malawi, and Uganda. Unlike the Nigerian validation labels, these classifications replace the model's predictions. None of the candidates whose classifications change belongs to a race in the analysis sample.

A.4 A shared set of group labels

We harmonize ethnic classifications across candidates, Afrobarometer respondents, and the DHS and census data. Where candidate names cannot reliably distinguish between groups, we combine them across sources, including Hausa and Fulani in Nigeria and Borana, Gabra, and Orma in Kenya. Some survey categories also aggregate multiple groups, such as Meru/Embu and Maasai/Samburu in Kenya. We assign respondents in these composite categories to the winner's or runner-up's group if the category contains that group but not the other. Respondents whose category contains both groups are excluded because their treatment status cannot be determined.

B Data construction

B.1 Placing respondents in constituencies

Constituency identifiers in CLEA are election-specific and cannot be used to link constituencies across elections. We therefore assign Afrobarometer respondents to constituencies geographically, using enumeration-area coordinates and the constituency boundaries corresponding to each election.

For Kenya, we use the harmonized constituency maps of Amodio et al. (2024). The number of constituencies increased from 210 to 290 following the 2010 constitutional reform, with the new boundaries first used in 2013. For the 2002 and 2007 elections, we map the post-reform constituencies to their predecessors using name matches, the correspondence of Amodio et al. (2024), and manual matching where necessary. For Malawi, we use constituency shapefiles.

For Nigeria, we assign respondents to local government areas (LGAs), which we aggregate into federal constituencies separately for each election. For 2011, we use the correspondence of Amodio et al. (2024). For 2015 and 2019, we identify the constituent LGAs from constituency names in CLEA. Applied to the 2011 constituencies, this procedure reproduces the existing correspondence for more than 99 percent of LGAs. A small number of LGAs are divided between constituencies; respondents in these LGAs are assigned to one of the corresponding constituencies.

For Uganda, the boundary data of Amodio et al. (2024) do not distinguish all constituencies. Some geographic units encompass multiple constituencies, such as counties subsequently divided into separate seats or municipalities represented independently of their surrounding county. The geographic correspondence assigns each such unit to a single constituency, and we apply this assignment to all respondents within it. Among ordinary constituencies, 203 of 215 in 2006, 224 of 237 in 2011, and 283 of 289 in 2016 have distinct boundaries. In the analysis sample, 86 of 728 Ugandan respondents, spanning 5 of 49 races, reside in geographic units affected by this limitation.

B.2 Matching survey rounds to elections

We match each Afrobarometer round to the most recent legislative election preceding its fieldwork (Table 1). We distinguish the first post-election survey round from subsequent rounds matched to the same election. Three elections are followed by only one matched round (Malawi 2014, Nigeria 2015, and Uganda 2006) and therefore contribute only to the first-round subsample.

B.3 Respondent ethnicity

Afrobarometer records respondents' self-reported ethnicity, but ethnic codes vary across survey rounds. We harmonize these codes using round-specific crosswalks. Round 2 does not record ethnicity, so for Kenya we infer it from respondents' home language. In Rounds 3–6, which record both variables, language-based classifications agree with self-reported ethnicity for 95 percent of Kenyan respondents. Most discrepancies reflect differences in the level of aggregation, such as Meru versus Meru/Embu. We do not use this proxy in other countries. In Malawi, for example, members of minority groups frequently report Chichewa, the national lingua franca, which would lead to their misclassification as members of the largest ethnic group.

B.4 Local ethnic composition

For Kenya, Malawi, and Nigeria, we estimate constituency-level ethnic shares using the Demographic and Health Surveys (DHS). We assign DHS clusters to constituencies using their coordinates and calculate group shares by pooling male and female respondents across the surveys listed in

Table 1. Only respondents located within the constituency contribute to these estimates. Because surveys differ in the ethnic groups they identify separately, we include a survey in a constituency only if groups not separately identified account for less than 5 percent of the population, as estimated from the survey with the most detailed classification. Where constituency-level observations in that survey are insufficient, we assess this threshold using regional shares. We also correct apparent coding errors identified by comparing the geographic distributions of ethnic categories across surveys.

For Uganda, only the 2011 AIDS Indicator Survey records both ethnicity and cluster locations, yielding a median of two clusters per constituency. We therefore use the 10 percent samples of the 2002 and 2014 population censuses from IPUMS International. These data identify respondents' ethnicity and locate households at the county level in 2002 and sub-county level in 2014. We allocate census units to constituencies in proportion to their geographic overlap. Most 2014 sub-counties fall within a single constituency, whereas approximately two-thirds of 2002 counties cross constituency boundaries. We exclude visitors and always include the more detailed 2014 census. We additionally use the 2002 census in constituencies where groups not separately identified in that census account for less than 5 percent of the population. Groups distinguished in the census but not in the candidate or Afrobarometer classifications are aggregated to the corresponding common categories, such as Dodoth and Jie into Karimojong and Banyaruguru into Banyankole.

The census-based shares identify the same largest ethnic group as the AIDS Indicator Survey in 86 percent of constituencies with data from both sources, rising to 91 percent where the largest census group accounts for more than half of the population. We use the resulting ethnic shares to characterize electoral competition, assess the validity of the regression discontinuity design, and control for local ethnic composition in a robustness check. They do not determine treatment assignment.

B.5 Prior representation

For each ethnic group in a race, we identify whether a co-ethnic candidate held the constituency seat following the previous election. Because constituency identifiers and boundaries change over time, we link constituencies to their predecessors using geographic overlap rather than identifiers. The ethnicity of the previous seat holder is determined using the same candidate classification procedure.

Prior representation is coded as missing when earlier election results are unavailable (Kenya 2002, Nigeria 2011, and Uganda 2006), when a constituency cannot be linked to its predecessor, or when the previous seat holder has no ethnic classification. For Malawi 2004, we use the 1999 election results. Missing observations are never coded as previously unrepresented. Prior representation is observed for 255 of the 340 ethnic-group-by-race cells.

C Outcomes

C.1 Question wording

Table C.1 reports the Afrobarometer questions used to construct the outcomes, together with their response scales. Question wording follows Round 6, with minor differences across rounds and countries.

Table C.1: Outcome questions

Outcome	Question	Scale
Responsiveness (index)		
MP tries to listen	How much of the time do you think the following try their best to listen to what people like you have to say: Members of Parliament?	0 never – 3 always
Councillor tries to listen	[Same question:] Local government councillors?	0 never – 3 always
Trust: government side (index)		
Trust in parliament, local government, ruling party	How much do you trust each of the following, or haven't you heard enough about them to say: Parliament? [Your elected local government council]? The ruling party?	0 not at all – 3 a lot
Civic participation (index)		
Attend community meeting; join others to raise an issue	Here is a list of actions that people sometimes take as citizens. For each of these, please tell me whether you, personally, have done any of these things during the past year. If not, would you do this if you had the chance: Attended a community meeting? Got together with others to raise an issue?	0 no, would never – 4 yes, often
Single items		
Extent of democracy	In your opinion, how much of a democracy is [country] today?	1 not a democracy – 4 full democracy
Satisfaction with democracy	Overall, how satisfied are you with the way democracy works in [country]?	0 not a democracy – 4 very satisfied
Preference for democracy	Which of these three statements is closest to your own opinion? Democracy is preferable to any other kind of government. In some circumstances, a non-democratic government can be preferable. For someone like me, it doesn't matter what kind of government we have.	1 doesn't matter – 3 democracy preferable
Own group treated unfairly	How often, if ever, are [respondent's ethnic group] treated unfairly by the government?	0 never – 3 always
Identify as national	Let us suppose that you had to choose between being a [national] and being a [respondent's ethnic group]. Which of the following statements best expresses your feelings?	1 only ethnic – 5 only national
Would vote	If a presidential election were held tomorrow, which party's candidate would you vote for?	1 names a party or candidate, 0 would not vote

Notes: Questions follow Afrobarometer Round 6, with minor differences in wording across rounds and countries. Responses of "don't know" and refusals are treated as missing. Satisfaction with democracy retains Afrobarometer's original coding, including zero for respondents who report that their country is not a democracy. Preference for democracy also retains the original coding: 1 if the form of government does not matter, 2 if a non-democratic government is sometimes preferable, and 3 if democracy is preferable. This coding imposes an ordering on the first two responses. Voting intention equals one for respondents naming a party or candidate and zero for those stating that they would not vote.

C.2 Index construction and factor analysis

We use exploratory factor analysis to inform the construction of the three outcome indices. The analysis includes 22 Afrobarometer items measuring democratic attitudes, institutional trust, civic participation, responsiveness, and identity. Because the items are ordinal, we compute polychoric correlations separately within each country and average the resulting matrices to avoid confounding within-country associations with cross-country differences. The analysis uses all respondents in the relevant Afrobarometer rounds, rather than only the estimation sample. Parallel analysis selects eight factors, which we extract using minimum residual estimation with oblimin rotation.

Table C.2 reports the factor loadings. The two responsiveness items and the two civic participation items each load on distinct factors. Trust in the president, parliament, local government, and ruling party loads on a common factor, although trust in local government also loads substantially on the opposition-trust factor. Our institutional trust index includes parliament, local government, and the ruling party, but excludes presidential trust. The extent of and satisfaction with democracy load on another common factor but are analyzed separately. Preference for democracy, perceived unfair treatment, and national identification do not load strongly on any factor and are retained as separate outcomes, as is voting intention.

The factor solution contains two Heywood cases, with estimated communalities slightly exceeding one for items belonging to two-item factors. Individual loadings on such factors should therefore be interpreted cautiously. The factor analysis provides an exploratory basis for grouping related outcomes rather than uniquely determining index composition.

The indices have ordinal Cronbach's alpha coefficients of 0.84 for responsiveness, 0.79 for trust in government-side institutions, and 0.77 for civic participation. We construct each index by standardizing its constituent items within country and averaging the available responses. We then normalize the index using the mean and standard deviation among respondents belonging to the runner-up's ethnic group.

C.3 Pooled estimates

Table C.3 reports the regression discontinuity estimates pooling all ethnic groups regardless of their prior representation (Section 4.3), and Figure C.1 plots them.

C.4 Components of the indices

Table C.4 reports separate regression discontinuity estimates for the individual items underlying the three indices, using the specification of the main analysis.

C.5 Minimum detectable effects and benchmarks

Table C.5 reports approximate minimum detectable effects for the individual outcomes in their original response scales. We compare these magnitudes with two benchmarks: the interquartile range of ethnic-group mean outcomes within countries and elections, and the difference in outcomes between members of groups included in national executive power, as classified by Ethnic Power Relations, and members of other groups. Both benchmarks use Afrobarometer respondents matched to the 14 elections, rather than only the estimation sample.

C.6 Civic participation: response thresholds

Table C.6 reports cumulative response thresholds for the two civic participation items. These distinguish willingness to participate from participation during the preceding year and capture differences

Table C.2: Exploratory factor analysis of the Afrobarometer items

Item	Primary factor	Loading	Communality
Trust: president†	Trust, government side	0.88	0.74
Trust: ruling party	Trust, government side	0.79	0.68
Trust: parliament	Trust, government side	0.55	0.60
Trust: local government	Trust, government side	0.42	0.55
Own group treated unfairly	(Trust, government side)	−0.24	0.12
Reject one-party rule†	Reject authoritarianism	0.80	0.63
Reject military rule†	Reject authoritarianism	0.69	0.46
Reject one-man rule†	Reject authoritarianism	0.64	0.44
Preference for democracy	(Reject authoritarianism)	0.25	0.13
Councillor tries to listen	Responsiveness	1.02	1.01
MP tries to listen	Responsiveness	0.68	0.53
Extent of democracy	Democracy evaluation	0.82	0.64
Satisfaction with democracy	Democracy evaluation	0.75	0.62
Identify as national	(Democracy evaluation)	0.09	0.03
Join others to raise an issue	Civic participation	0.79	0.63
Attend community meeting	Civic participation	0.79	0.63
Contact MP†	Direct contacting	1.01	1.00
Contact local official†	Direct contacting	0.50	0.48
Trust: opposition†	Trust in the opposition	0.59	0.33
Discuss politics†	Discussion and voting	0.59	0.38
Would vote	Discussion and voting	0.40	0.27
Attend demonstration†	(Discussion and voting)	0.19	0.13

Notes: Minimum residual factor analysis with oblimin rotation of 22 Afrobarometer items, on polychoric correlations computed within each country and averaged across Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda (all respondents in the survey rounds used, not only the analysis sample). Parallel analysis retains eight factors. Each item is listed with the factor on which it loads most strongly; factor names are descriptive. Factors in parentheses: the item's largest loading is below 0.4, so it does not load clearly on any factor. Loadings slightly above one occur for the two-item factors. †Item not used in the paper.

Table C.3: The effect of co-ethnic representation

	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)
Civic participation (index)	−0.152	0.240	[−0.609, 0.333]	0.152	72/77
Responsiveness (index)	−0.309	0.334	[−1.048, 0.261]	0.137	65/70
Trust: government side (index)	−0.052	0.268	[−0.569, 0.481]	0.192	80/86
Own group treated unfairly	−0.064	0.170	[−0.442, 0.225]	0.191	80/87
Would vote (pp)	9.1	16.2	[−22.0, 41.4]	0.030	23/16
Extent of democracy	−0.201	0.225	[−0.627, 0.255]	0.108	58/56
Satisfaction with democracy	−0.035	0.207	[−0.438, 0.372]	0.104	54/52
Preference for democracy	−0.153	0.226	[−0.667, 0.219]	0.113	58/59
Identify as national	−0.105	0.190	[−0.508, 0.238]	0.088	50/45

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates of the effect of the respondent's own ethnic group narrowly winning rather than narrowly losing the seat. Sample: members of the winner's and the runner-up's ethnic groups in races where the two belong to different groups; Kenya, Malawi, Nigeria, and Uganda. Local linear regression on group-by-race cells with a triangular kernel, weighted by the number of respondents; controls for the cell means of age, gender, education, urban residence, and years since the election, and country-by-election fixed effects. Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors and 95 percent confidence intervals are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race; stars refer to the robust bias-corrected test. The interval is centered on the bias-corrected estimate and therefore need not be symmetric around the coefficient. Indices are standardized on members of the runner-up's group; single items are expressed in standard deviations of the same group, except would vote, which is in percentage points. BW: mean squared error optimal bandwidth on the margin of victory (a bandwidth of 0.10 corresponds to a 10-point vote-share margin). N (L/R): cells to the left and right of the cutoff within the bandwidth. Would vote: 91.6 percent of runner-up-group members within the bandwidth say they would vote; one percentage point equals 0.039 standard deviations of that group. The bandwidth selected for would vote is narrow and contains 26 races. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table C.4: The effect of co-ethnic representation on the components of the indices

	Coef.	SE	p	BW	Races	N (L/R)
Responsiveness						
MP tries to listen	−0.174	0.337	0.561	0.185	112	77/85
Councillor tries to listen	−0.299	0.254	0.165	0.131	84	61/62
Trust, government side						
Trust: parliament	−0.071	0.303	0.842	0.175	107	75/81
Trust: local government	0.352	0.327	0.172	0.077	56	44/38
Trust: ruling party	−0.047	0.253	0.899	0.151	101	72/75
Civic participation						
Join others to raise an issue	−0.175	0.169	0.287	0.140	95	68/71
Attend community meeting	−0.088	0.312	0.849	0.142	96	68/72

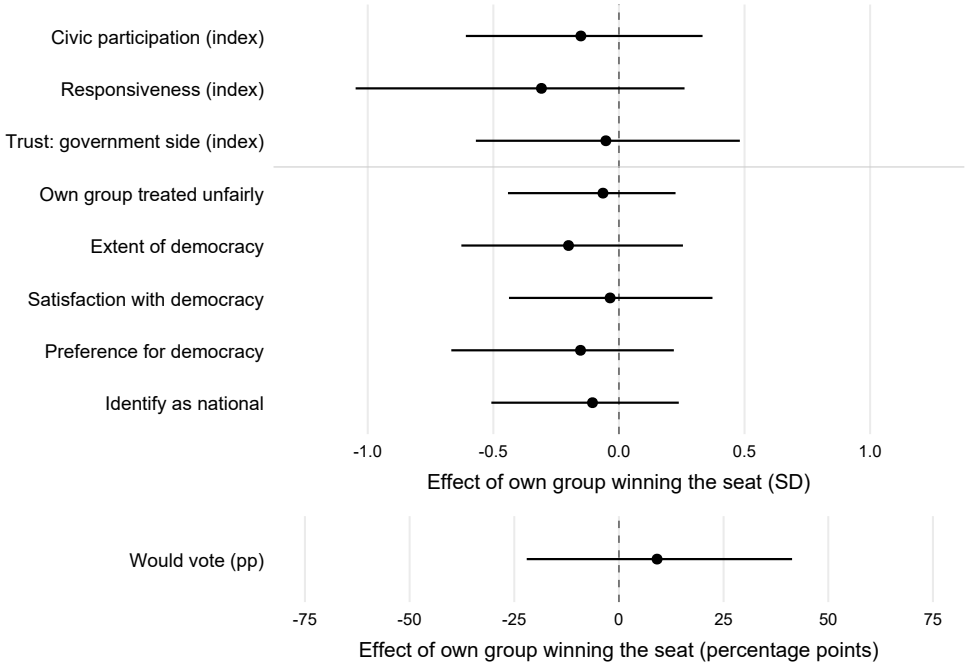
Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates for each item that enters one of the three indices, with the specification of Table C.3. Items are expressed in standard deviations of members of the runner-up's group. Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors and p-values are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race. BW: mean squared error optimal bandwidth on the margin of victory. Races: races within the bandwidth. N (L/R): cells to the left and right of the cutoff. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table C.5: Minimum detectable effects and benchmarks, in response steps

	Scale	SD, runner-up group	Minimum detectable effect	Spread of group means	National power gap
Responsiveness (index components)					
MP tries to listen	0–3	0.83	0.79	0.15	−0.02
Councillor tries to listen	0–3	0.90	0.64	0.21	0.01
Trust, government side (index components)					
Trust: parliament	0–3	1.06	0.90	0.28	−0.06
Trust: local government	0–3	1.03	0.94	0.27	−0.06
Trust: ruling party	0–3	1.10	0.78	0.43	0.12
Civic participation (index components)					
Join others to raise an issue	0–4	1.30	0.62	0.21	−0.04
Attend community meeting	0–4	1.26	1.10	0.26	−0.09
Single items					
Own group treated unfairly	0–3	1.02	0.48	0.44	−0.34
Extent of democracy	1–4	0.85	0.53	0.21	−0.04
Satisfaction with democracy	0–4	0.99	0.57	0.28	0.03
Preference for democracy	1–3	0.68	0.43	0.11	−0.02
Identify as national	1–5	1.14	0.61	0.26	0.01
Would vote (pp)	0/1	25.9	45.3	6.1	1.0

Notes: All columns except the scale are in steps of the original response scale (percentage points for would vote). SD, runner-up group: standard deviation among members of the runner-up's group in the analysis sample. Minimum detectable effect: 2.8 times the standard error of the item's estimate with the specification of Table C.3 (80 percent power, 5 percent two-sided test). Spread of group means: interquartile range of the means of ethnic groups with at least 30 respondents, within each country-election, averaged over country-elections with weights equal to the number of respondents. National power gap: difference between members of groups that Ethnic Power Relations codes as included in national executive power (dominant, senior or junior partner) and members of other groups, from a regression with country-by-election fixed effects; EPR status is available for 43 percent of these respondents. Both benchmarks use all Afrobarometer respondents matched to the 14 elections.

Figure C.1: The effect of co-ethnic representation



Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates from Table C.3, with robust bias-corrected 95 percent confidence intervals clustered by race. The horizontal line separates the three indices from the single items. The lower panel shows voting intention in percentage points.

in the frequency of reported activity. Each threshold measures the share of activities reported at or above the corresponding response category. We also report estimates using the original response scale and the standardized civic participation index, which differ in their normalization. Because the questions refer to the preceding year, we additionally report estimates excluding respondents interviewed within twelve months of the election.

C.7 Other forms of political engagement

Table C.7 reports exploratory estimates for five additional outcomes: contact with members of parliament and local officials, participation in demonstrations, political discussion, and trust in the opposition. These outcomes were examined previously but are not part of our main outcome set. We report all five to assess whether the participation results extend to other forms of political engagement and institutional trust.

Table C.6: Civic participation: response thresholds and reported activity

	Transition			Continuity			Continuity − transition			
	Coef.	SE	95% CI	Coef.	SE	95% CI	Diff.	SE	95% CI	Bootstrap CI
A. All respondents										
Civic participation (index, SD)	−0.565**	0.256	[−1.125, −0.124]	0.152	0.292	[−0.337, 0.806]	0.717**	0.349	[0.022, 1.411]	[−0.147, 1.796]*
Raw scale, mean of the two items (0–4)	−0.597**	0.276	[−1.202, −0.121]	0.160	0.311	[−0.360, 0.858]	0.756**	0.376	[0.009, 1.504]	[−0.145, 2.066]*
Did it or would if given the chance (pp)	−2.7	5.2	[−12.7, 7.6]	3.1	4.5	[−4.7, 12.8]	5.8	5.4	[−5.0, 16.6]	[−10.2, 21.5]
Did it at least once (pp)	−18.8***	6.9	[−34.5, −7.5]	7.1	14.5	[−18.1, 38.9]	25.8*	14.7	[−3.5, 55.1]	[−10.3, 70.2]
Did it several times or often (pp)	−19.1**	9.6	[−40.1, −2.3]	1.3	12.0	[−20.7, 26.3]	20.4	13.2	[−5.9, 46.7]	[−11.7, 64.5]
Did it often (pp)	−19.0**	9.1	[−39.2, −3.6]	4.6	7.1	[−6.3, 21.5]	23.6**	10.0	[3.8, 43.4]	[6.0, 55.7]**
B. Excluding respondents interviewed within 12 months after the election										
Civic participation (index, SD)	−0.575	0.522	[−1.684, 0.364]	0.254	0.293	[−0.238, 0.910]	0.829**	0.415	[0.001, 1.656]	
Raw scale, mean of the two items (0–4)	−0.615	0.555	[−1.794, 0.383]	0.264	0.312	[−0.267, 0.958]	0.879*	0.449	[−0.015, 1.772]	
Did it or would if given the chance (pp)	−1.3	4.0	[−8.9, 6.8]	2.7	4.2	[−4.7, 11.9]	4.0	5.8	[−7.6, 15.6]	
Did it at least once (pp)	−18.5	18.5	[−57.6, 14.7]	13.0	13.3	[−10.2, 41.8]	31.5*	16.2	[−0.9, 63.9]	
Did it several times or often (pp)	−22.3	24.6	[−73.8, 22.8]	4.5	13.2	[−19.7, 32.0]	26.8	16.5	[−6.1, 59.7]	
Did it often (pp)	−19.4**	10.1	[−42.2, −2.7]	6.2	7.3	[−5.3, 23.3]	25.6**	11.4	[2.8, 48.3]	

Notes: Both civic items (attending a community meeting, joining others to raise an issue) are coded in every round as 0 = no, would never; 1 = no, but would if given the chance; 2 = yes, once or twice; 3 = yes, several times; 4 = yes, often. Each threshold row is the share of the two activities at or above that code, in percentage points; the raw-scale row is the mean of the two codes. The four threshold coefficients sum exactly to the raw-scale coefficient, because the raw mean equals the sum of the four shares and all rows share one design. They do not sum mechanically to the index coefficient: the index standardizes each item within country before averaging and is normalized on the runner-up's group, so it is in different units and is not a rescaling of the raw-scale estimate. Past-year reference period: both items ask about the past year, so codes 0 and 1 mean that the respondent did not take part in that year, and for respondents interviewed less than 12 months after the election the reference period includes time before it. These respondents are 18 percent of transition respondents within the bandwidth (26 percent on the winning side, 13 percent on the losing side) and 16 percent of continuity respondents; panel B excludes them. Transition: groups that did not hold the seat at the previous election, for which winning establishes representation and losing leaves the group without it. Continuity: groups that held the seat, for which winning preserves representation and losing removes it. Local linear regression on group-by-race cells with a triangular kernel, weighted by the number of respondents, with the cell means of age, gender, education, urban residence, and years since the election as controls and country-by-election fixed effects. Every row uses the bandwidth and bias bandwidth of the index estimate in Table 6: 0.178 for transition (34/34 cells left/right of the cutoff in panel A, 31/27 in panel B) and 0.156 for continuity (30/31 and 28/28). Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors and 95 percent confidence intervals are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race, stars refer to the robust bias-corrected test, and intervals are centered on the bias-corrected estimate. The difference comes from both subsamples stacked in one weighted regression with all coefficients specific to the subsample, each at its own bandwidth, so that it equals the difference between the two conventional estimates; its standard error is conventional and clustered by race, and stars use the t distribution with the number of races minus one degrees of freedom. Bootstrap interval: percentile interval of the difference between the bias-corrected estimates from 999 draws that resample whole races, so that a race contributing to both subsamples enters both or neither, with each subsample refitted at its fixed bandwidths. It need not be centered on the reported difference; stars on it refer to the percentile bootstrap test. The bootstrap interval for the index is the one in Table E.1, and the interval for "did it often" is the one in Table 7; no bootstrap was computed for panel B. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table C.7: Other forms of engagement by prior representation (exploratory)

	Transition					Continuity					Continuity − transition			
	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)	Coef.	SE	95% CI	BW	N (L/R)	Diff.	SE	95% CI	Bootstrap CI
A. Estimates														
Contact MP	−0.182	0.526	[−1.123, 0.940]	0.251	44/43	0.135	0.189	[−0.229, 0.513]	0.183	31/32	0.317	0.268	[−0.215, 0.848]	[−0.676, 0.803]
Contact local official	−0.105	0.168	[−0.433, 0.226]	0.138	26/28	−0.191	0.179	[−0.571, 0.132]	0.179	29/31	−0.086	0.281	[−0.645, 0.473]	[−1.019, 0.619]
Attend demonstration	0.071	0.514	[−0.951, 1.064]	0.173	33/33	−0.013	0.361	[−0.712, 0.701]	0.146	30/29	−0.084	0.378	[−0.836, 0.669]	–
Discuss politics	0.011	0.288	[−0.499, 0.631]	0.183	34/35	−0.159	0.211	[−0.549, 0.278]	0.190	32/34	−0.170	0.252	[−0.670, 0.330]	–
Trust: opposition	−0.124	0.318	[−0.758, 0.487]	0.210	36/37	−0.161	0.259	[−0.621, 0.394]	0.172	31/32	−0.038	0.243	[−0.520, 0.445]	–

B. Coverage and precision

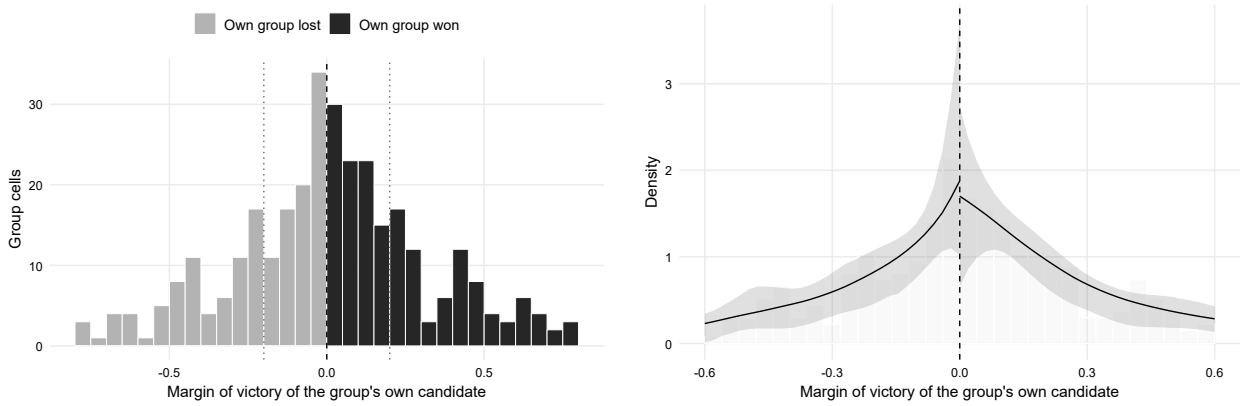
	Rounds	Answered (%)		Base rate (%)		Minimum detectable effect		
		Trans.	Cont.	Trans.	Cont.	Trans.	Cont.	Diff.
Contact MP	4–9	100	100	12	13	1.47	0.53	0.75
Contact local official	4–9	73	83	31	30	0.47	0.50	0.79
Attend demonstration	4–9	98	99	7	8	1.44	1.01	1.06
Discuss politics	4–9	99	100	73	69	0.81	0.59	0.70
Trust: opposition	4–9	96	94	34	40	0.89	0.73	0.68

Notes: Exploratory: these five items were estimated earlier and left out of the outcome set, so the estimates are not prespecified tests. All five are reported. Contact MP and contact local official are listed first because they bear most directly on substitution between channels of participation: a positive transition estimate for contact MP together with the negative estimate for civic participation would be consistent with such substitution, but would not show that any group changed its activities. Every estimate compares narrow winners with narrow losers and so describes the relative composition of engagement in the two groups, not which group changed. Statistically insignificant estimates are not evidence of equivalence or of no effect: panel B reports what the design can detect. Transition: groups that did not hold the seat at the previous election, for which winning establishes representation and losing leaves the group without it. Continuity: groups that held the seat, for which winning preserves representation and losing removes it. Specification, bandwidth selection, and inference as in Table 6, with each subsample and outcome at its own mean squared error optimal bandwidth; items are in standard deviations of the runner-up's group. Coefficients are conventional estimates; standard errors and 95 percent confidence intervals are robust bias-corrected and clustered by race. The difference and its standard error are as in Table 6. Bootstrap CI: percentile interval of the difference between the bias-corrected estimates from 999 draws that resample whole races, computed for the two contact items only. Panel B: Afrobarometer rounds of the respondents within the bandwidth; share of respondents within the bandwidth who answered the item (some respondents are not asked about contacting a local official); base rate among runner-up-group members within the bandwidth (contacted at least once; attended at least once in the past year; discusses at least occasionally; trusts somewhat or a lot); minimum detectable effect at 80 percent power and a 5 percent two-sided test, 2.8 times the standard error. From round 6 to round 8, the demonstration item is asked in a battery introduced by actions taken when dissatisfied with government performance; the question on discussing politics refers to no fixed period. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

D Distribution of the running variable

Figure D.1 shows the distribution of the signed electoral margin across ethnic-group-by-race cells. Panel (a) plots the number of cells by electoral margin, and panel (b) reports local polynomial density estimates on either side of the cutoff. Neither the figure nor the formal density test provides evidence of a discontinuity at the cutoff ($p = 0.301$). However, this test is partly uninformative because races in which both ethnic groups are observed contribute margins of equal magnitude and opposite sign. A race-level test, retaining one observation per race and orienting the margin by the group with the larger local population share, also fails to reject continuity ($p = 0.158$).

Figure D.1: Distribution of the running variable



(a) Group cells by margin (b) Density estimate

Notes: Panel (a) shows the number of ethnic-group-by-race cells by the signed margin of their candidate. Positive margins indicate electoral victory and negative margins indicate defeat; dotted lines mark margins of 20 percentage points. Panel (b) reports local polynomial density estimates with 95 percent confidence intervals (Cattaneo et al. 2020). The race-level density test described in the text is not plotted.

E Differences between subsamples

Tables 6 and 8 report differences between subsample estimates using stacked regressions with conventional race-clustered standard errors, whereas inference within each subsample is robust bias-corrected. Table E.1 assesses these differences using the bias-corrected estimates and race-cluster bootstrap inference. For each outcome, we calculate the difference between the two bias-corrected estimates, retaining the subsample-specific bandwidths from the main tables. We obtain standard errors and percentile confidence intervals from 999 bootstrap replications that resample entire electoral races. Races contributing observations to both subsamples are resampled jointly, preserving dependence between their estimates.

Bootstrap standard errors are generally larger than conventional standard errors. The difference in civic participation between the transition and continuity subsamples remains statistically significant at the 10 percent level, whereas the difference in voting intention does not. Between the first and later survey rounds, differences in institutional trust and preference for democracy remain significant at the 10 percent level, and the difference in voting intention at the 5 percent level. The difference in national identification is no longer statistically significant. For voting intention, however, the bootstrap distribution is skewed: the percentile confidence interval excludes zero, whereas a normal-approximation test using the bootstrap standard error would not reject. We therefore interpret this result cautiously.

Table E.1: Differences between subsamples: bootstrap of the bias-corrected estimates

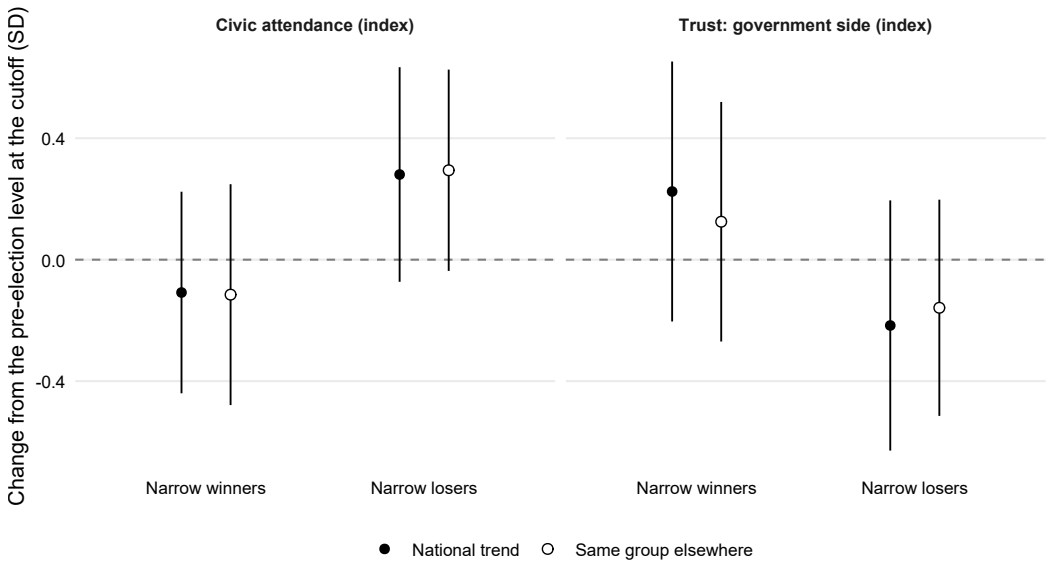
	Continuity − transition			Later − first round		
	Diff.	SE	95% CI	Diff.	SE	95% CI
Civic participation (index)	0.859^{*}	0.498	[−0.147, 1.796]	0.123	0.364	[−0.580, 0.867]
Responsiveness (index)	−0.291	0.518	[−1.294, 0.722]	0.155	0.366	[−0.573, 0.840]
Trust: government side (index)	−0.914	0.639	[−2.181, 0.362]	-0.740^{*}	0.428	[−1.590, 0.149]
Own group treated unfairly	−0.152	0.578	[−1.342, 0.919]	0.925	0.609	[−0.269, 2.158]
Would vote (pp)	39.0	33.2	[−14.4, 111.3]	11.9^{**}	7.7	[0.6, 30.0]
Extent of democracy	0.275	0.443	[−0.668, 1.106]	−0.109	0.425	[−0.811, 0.807]
Satisfaction with democracy	−0.243	0.349	[−0.981, 0.462]	−0.502	0.691	[−2.212, 0.578]
Preference for democracy	−0.354	0.414	[−1.115, 0.491]	-0.846^{*}	0.423	[−1.687, 0.029]
Identify as national	0.004	0.480	[−1.091, 0.778]	−0.745	0.560	[−1.977, 0.167]

Notes: Difference between the bias-corrected regression discontinuity estimates of the two subsamples in Tables 6 and 8. Each subsample is estimated as in those tables and keeps the bandwidths selected there. Standard errors and 95 percent confidence intervals come from a bootstrap with 999 draws that resamples races with replacement, so that a race contributing cells to both subsamples enters both or neither; the interval is the 2.5th to 97.5th percentile of the bootstrap distribution, and stars refer to the corresponding percentile test. Indices are standardized on members of the runner-up's group; single items are expressed in standard deviations of the same group, except would vote, which is in percentage points. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

E.1 Pre-election comparisons and sample coverage

We use Afrobarometer observations preceding the election to assess whether differences in civic participation between subsequently winning and losing groups were already present before the electoral outcome. Because pre-election observations are available for only a subset of the transition sample, we also document the coverage of these comparisons. Finally, we examine changes in civic participation among narrow winners and losers relative to national trends and co-ethnics in other constituencies. These changes are descriptive and do not separately identify the effects of electoral victory or defeat.

Figure E.1: Transition subsample: change at the cutoff from the pre-election level



Notes: Descriptive and noncausal: these changes depend on the benchmark trend and do not identify effects of winning or losing. Change in the outcome at the cutoff from the pre-election level to the post-election level, for narrow winners and narrow losers among groups that did not hold the seat at the previous election, with 95 percent confidence intervals clustered by race (Table E.2, panel C). Outcomes are measured relative to all Afrobarometer respondents in the same country and round (national trend) or to members of the same group in other constituencies (same group elsewhere). The pre-election level is common to both sides.

Table E.2: The transition subsample before and after the election

	Civic participation (index)					Secondary: trust, government side (index)				
	Est.	SE	95% CI	Bootstrap CI	N	Est.	SE	95% CI	Bootstrap CI	N
A. Post-election regression discontinuity										
All transition cells (Table 6)	−0.565**	0.256	[−1.125, −0.124]	[−1.319, −0.078]**	34/34	0.595***	0.240	[0.281, 1.220]	[−0.019, 1.849]*	27/30
Cells with pre-election respondents	−0.581***	0.151	[−0.947, −0.355]	[−1.572, 0.737]	21/14	0.572	0.415	[−0.345, 1.283]	[−2.939, 7.066]	16/12
same cells, own bandwidth	−0.534***	0.178	[−0.889, −0.190]		13/10	1.024**	0.424	[0.151, 1.811]		13/9
Cells without pre-election respondents	−1.097***	0.452	[−2.054, −0.284]		13/20	0.625**	0.484	[0.033, 1.932]		11/18
B. Cells with pre-election respondents, before the election										
Pre-election discontinuity	−0.189	0.202	[−0.619, 0.173]		21/14	−0.261	0.253	[−0.725, 0.265]		16/12
same cells, own bandwidth	−0.063	0.127	[−0.347, 0.151]		16/11	−0.266	0.265	[−0.773, 0.265]		16/12
Post-election minus pre-election	−0.392	0.335	[−1.076, 0.292]	[−1.550, 1.271]		0.833	0.671	[−0.553, 2.218]	[−6.663, 9.705]	
C. Descriptive, noncausal: change at the cutoff from the pre-election level, relative to a benchmark trend										
Winners, national trend	−0.108	0.166	[−0.440, 0.224]	[−0.554, 0.230]	34	0.225	0.213	[−0.204, 0.653]	[−0.354, 0.782]	30
Losers, national trend	0.281	0.177	[−0.073, 0.634]	[−0.154, 0.620]	34	−0.217	0.205	[−0.629, 0.195]	[−0.770, 0.103]	27
Winners, co-ethnics elsewhere	−0.115	0.182	[−0.479, 0.249]	[−0.719, 0.269]	32	0.125	0.196	[−0.269, 0.520]	[−0.320, 0.671]	28
Losers, co-ethnics elsewhere	0.295*	0.165	[−0.037, 0.626]	[−0.107, 0.649]	32	−0.158	0.177	[−0.514, 0.198]	[−0.682, 0.154]	26

Notes: Transition subsample: groups that did not hold the seat at the previous election. Pre-election respondents are members of the same group living in the same constituency, as drawn at the current election, who were interviewed in the Afrobarometer rounds matched to the previous election. Their cells carry the running variable, side, and race of the current election, and outcomes before and after the election are on the same scale. Bandwidths: those of Table 6 (0.178 for civic participation, 0.138 for trust), except the own-bandwidth rows, which select the bandwidth within those cells (panel A: 0.108 and 0.090). Panels A and B: regression discontinuity estimates as in Table 6, with conventional coefficients and robust bias-corrected standard errors and intervals clustered by race; before the election, covariates are measured among pre-election respondents and years since the previous election replace years since the current one. Post-election minus pre-election: the two discontinuities on the same cells at the same bandwidth, from one stacked regression with all coefficients specific to the period, with a conventional standard error clustered by race. It remains a winner-minus-loser contrast and does not show which side changed. These are repeated cross-sections of different respondents, not a panel. Analytical and bootstrap inference diverge for the cells with pre-election respondents: the regression fits 17 coefficients on 35 cells for civic participation and on 28 for trust, so the analytical standard error (0.151 for civic participation) understates the uncertainty (bootstrap standard error 0.749), and the bootstrap interval is the relevant one. For the full transition sample the two agree. Panel C is descriptive and noncausal: without a credible counterfactual for how participation would have evolved, these changes do not identify effects of winning or losing. Outcomes are measured relative to the mean of all Afrobarometer respondents in the same country and round (national trend) or of members of the same group in that country and round who live in other constituencies (co-ethnics elsewhere). The change is the level at the cutoff after the election minus the level before it, from one weighted regression of cells from both periods with period-by-side slopes, a common pre-election level at the cutoff, country-by-election fixed effects common to both periods, and centered cell means of age, gender, education, and urban residence; conventional standard errors clustered by race. For civic participation, the pre-election level comes from 14 winning-side and 21 losing-side cells. Bootstrap CI: percentile interval from 999 draws that resample whole races, of the bias-corrected estimate in panels A and B and of the conventional estimate in panel C; stars on it refer to the percentile bootstrap test. N: cells left/right of the cutoff within the bandwidth (panels A and B); cells after the election on that side (panel C). $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table E.3: Transition cells with and without pre-election respondents

	All cells	With pre-election respondents	Without pre-election respondents	With − without Diff.	(SE)
Cells, losing/winning side	34/34	21/14	13/20		
Races	61	31	32		
Respondents	568	397	171		
Respondents per cell	8.4	11.3	5.2	7.9***	(2.7)
Cell of the winning group (share)	0.50	0.40	0.61	−0.17	(0.12)
Vote-share gap (pp)	6.6	7.4	5.8	1.7	(1.5)
Age	35.0	34.8	35.4	2.3	(2.2)
Female	0.41	0.40	0.45	−0.03	(0.08)
Education	3.43	3.68	2.85	0.31	(0.39)
Urban	0.29	0.37	0.09	0.12	(0.11)
Years since the election	2.89	3.13	2.33	0.15	(0.25)
Own group's local share	0.30	0.31	0.28	0.08	(0.07)
Cells in Kenya	33	23	10		
Cells in Malawi	18	7	11		
Cells in Nigeria	3	1	2		
Cells in Uganda	14	4	10		

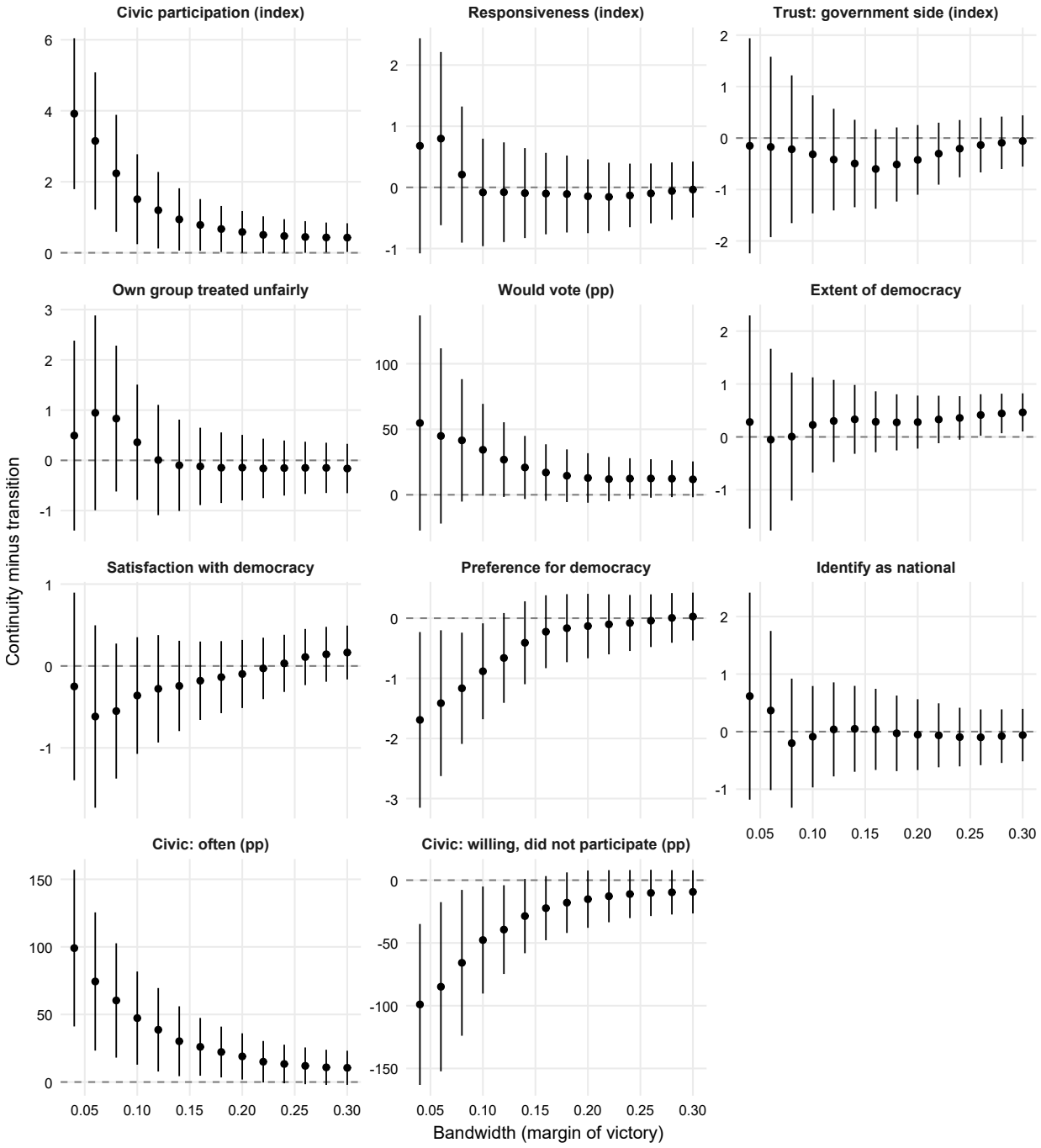
Notes: Transition-subsample cells within the civic participation bandwidth of Table 6 (0.178). Pre-election respondents are defined as in Table E.2. Across all margins, they are available for 64 of the 133 transition cells with a civic participation outcome. Columns 1 to 3: respondent-weighted means of the cell means, except the own local share and the winning-cell share, which are unweighted. With − without: difference within country-by-election, with the standard error clustered by race in parentheses. The first election of each country's series has no pre-election respondents. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

E.2 Additional robustness checks by prior representation

Differences across bandwidths. Figure E.2 shows the continuity-minus-transition differences at the fixed bandwidths of Figure 4. The differences and their confidence intervals come from stacked regressions with conventional standard errors clustered by race; they do not use the race-cluster bootstrap of Table E.1.

Common support of local population shares. Narrowly winning groups tend to have smaller local population shares than narrowly losing groups (Section 3). Table E.4 restricts the transition and continuity subsamples separately to the overlap of the 5th–95th percentile ranges of local ethnic population shares among winning and losing cells in races decided by less than 20 percentage points. The bandwidths of the main estimates are held fixed, so differences between the two columns reflect the sample restriction. The transition estimate for civic participation changes little. The continuity estimate turns negative, and the difference between the two subsamples becomes smaller and is no longer statistically significant. The restriction mainly removes previously represented groups with very large local population shares that narrowly lost the seat. The estimated heterogeneity is therefore sensitive to these cells. The comparison does not establish that local ethnic composition explains the heterogeneity, because prior representation and local population shares cannot be separated with the available data.

Figure E.2: Continuity minus transition across bandwidths



Notes: Difference between the continuity and transition estimates of Figure 4 at common fixed bandwidths of the electoral margin from 0.04 to 0.30, with estimation and bias bandwidths set equal. Point estimates are differences of the conventional coefficients from a stacked regression in which all coefficients are specific to the subsample; the 95 percent confidence intervals use conventional standard errors clustered by race and the t distribution with the number of races minus one degrees of freedom. Indices and single items are in standard deviations of members of the runner-up's group; would vote and the two civic participation response categories are in percentage points.

Table E.4: Civic participation on the common support of local population shares

	Full sample			Common support of local shares		
	Coef.	SE	95% CI	Coef.	SE	95% CI
A. Civic participation (index)						
Transition	-0.565^{**}	0.256	[−1.125, −0.124]	-0.587^{**}	0.278	[−1.199, −0.111]
Continuity	0.152	0.292	[−0.337, 0.806]	-0.320^{*}	0.259	[−0.949, 0.065]
Continuity − transition	0.717^{**}	0.349	[0.022, 1.411]	0.267	0.407	[−0.546, 1.080]
bootstrap, bias-corrected	0.859^{*}	0.498	[−0.147, 1.796]	0.213	0.696	[−1.146, 1.536]
Transition cells, losing/winning (races)		34/34 (61)			27/27 (48)	
Continuity cells, losing/winning (races)		30/31 (61)			17/27 (44)	
B. Civic participation done often (pp)						
Transition	-19.0^{**}	9.1	[−39.2, −3.6]	-19.7^{**}	9.1	[−40.3, −4.6]
Continuity	4.6	7.1	[−6.3, 21.5]	−6.1	9.8	[−25.1, 13.4]
Continuity − transition	23.6^{**}	10.0	[3.8, 43.4]	13.6	12.1	[−10.5, 37.7]
bootstrap, bias-corrected	29.1^{**}	13.3	[6.0, 55.7]	16.6	19.5	[−15.1, 61.8]
Transition cells, losing/winning (races)		34/34 (61)			27/27 (48)	
Continuity cells, losing/winning (races)		30/31 (61)			17/27 (44)	

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates with the specification of Table 6, for the full sample and for cells whose own local population share lies in the common support of narrowly winning and narrowly losing groups. The common support is defined separately for each subsample as the overlap of the 5th to 95th percentile ranges of the own local share among winning and losing cells with electoral gaps below 20 percentage points: [0.0321, 0.6561] for transition and [0.0561, 0.7629] for continuity. Shares come from pooled DHS surveys (censuses in Uganda). Both columns keep the bandwidths of Tables 6 and 7 (transition 0.178, continuity 0.156), so the comparison reflects the sample restriction only. Inside these windows, the restriction removes 14 of 68 transition cells and 17 of 61 continuity cells (13 of the 17 removed continuity cells are on the losing side). Transition and continuity rows: conventional coefficients with robust bias-corrected standard errors, confidence intervals and significance tests, clustered by race. Difference rows: difference of the conventional coefficients from a stacked regression, with conventional standard errors clustered by race and t-based intervals. Bootstrap rows: difference of the bias-corrected estimates with race-cluster bootstrap standard errors (999 draws), percentile intervals and percentile tests. With bandwidths reselected on the common support, the index difference is 0.238 (SE 0.580); with a common bandwidth of 0.152 in both subsamples, 0.259 (SE 0.460). Comparable common-support estimates do not exist for the other outcomes. Cells: within the bandwidth of the civic participation index. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Pre-election outcomes. Table E.5 reports estimates for outcomes measured before the election, for all outcomes in both subsamples and for their difference. For each cell of the main analysis, we use members of the same group living in the same constituency who were interviewed in the Afrobarometer rounds matched to the previous election, and assign them the running variable, treatment, and prior representation of the later contest. These observations come from repeated cross-sections, not from a panel of individuals. Coverage is limited, and within the selected bandwidths each regression contains few cells relative to the number of parameters. Analytic inference is therefore unreliable, and a race-cluster bootstrap proved too unstable to resolve the uncertainty. We report the estimates with their analytic confidence intervals but omit significance markers because inference is unreliable in these small samples. Several analytic tests reject at the 10 percent level; this does not establish pre-existing differences, and the absence of a reliable discontinuity would not show that the groups were similar before the election. The transition estimates for civic participation coincide with the pre-election comparisons in Table E.2. These comparisons do not provide evidence for or against the identifying assumption.

Multiple testing. Table E.6 adjusts the p-values of the nine outcome-specific continuity-minus-transition differences for multiple testing, using both the conventional p-values of Table 6 and the bootstrap p-values of Table E.1. None of the nine heterogeneity tests remains statistically significant after the Holm, Benjamini–Hochberg, or Romano–Wolf adjustments, with either set of p-values. Panel B adds the nine later-minus-first-round differences, and no test survives this broader adjustment either. The adjustments apply to the differences between subsamples; they do not cover the estimates within each subsample.

Table E.5: Pre-election outcomes by prior representation

		Analytic				
	Estimate	SE	95% CI	Bandwidth	Cells (L/R)	Races
A. Transition: 64 of 134 cells covered, 570 respondents						
Responsiveness (index)	1.093	0.315	[0.430, 1.664]	0.098	13/10	21
Trust: government side (index)	−0.266	0.265	[−0.773, 0.265]	0.135	16/12	25
Civic participation (index)	−0.063	0.127	[−0.347, 0.151]	0.119	16/11	24
Own group treated unfairly	0.120	0.249	[−0.525, 0.450]	0.133	16/11	24
Would vote (pp)	20.8	10.2	[3.7, 43.7]	0.099	13/10	21
Extent of democracy	0.484	0.251	[0.124, 1.107]	0.127	16/11	24
Satisfaction with democracy	0.649	0.291	[0.283, 1.423]	0.120	16/10	23
Preference for democracy	0.657	0.203	[0.481, 1.275]	0.108	13/9	20
Identify as national	0.068	0.213	[−0.476, 0.359]	0.097	13/9	20
Civic: often (pp)	11.6	6.5	[4.5, 29.8]	0.119	16/11	24
Civic: willing, did not participate (pp)	5.1	10.7	[−10.2, 31.9]	0.119	16/11	24
B. Continuity: 74 of 121 cells covered, 1,107 respondents						
Responsiveness (index)	−0.401	0.153	[−0.671, −0.072]	0.108	15/11	26
Trust: government side (index)	0.044	0.348	[−0.636, 0.729]	0.166	19/18	37
Civic participation (index)	−0.017	0.199	[−0.435, 0.346]	0.132	19/14	33
Own group treated unfairly	−0.334	0.438	[−1.165, 0.551]	0.091	16/10	26
Would vote (pp)	−1.9	4.0	[−9.1, 6.7]	0.171	15/17	32
Extent of democracy	0.440	0.307	[−0.122, 1.083]	0.102	17/11	28
Satisfaction with democracy	0.012	0.239	[−0.439, 0.496]	0.145	19/16	35
Preference for democracy	0.146	0.196	[−0.236, 0.531]	0.174	19/17	36
Identify as national	0.203	0.197	[−0.245, 0.528]	0.200	16/18	34
Civic: often (pp)	−2.7	3.9	[−11.7, 3.5]	0.132	19/14	33
Civic: willing, did not participate (pp)	2.1	5.8	[−8.4, 14.3]	0.132	19/14	33
C. Continuity minus transition (bandwidths and cells: transition / continuity)						
Responsiveness (index)	−1.493	0.555	[−2.619, −0.368]	0.098 / 0.108	23 / 26	36
Trust: government side (index)	0.311	0.478	[−0.651, 1.272]	0.135 / 0.166	28 / 37	49
Civic participation (index)	0.046	0.463	[−0.886, 0.978]	0.119 / 0.132	27 / 33	45
Own group treated unfairly	−0.454	0.689	[−1.847, 0.938]	0.133 / 0.091	27 / 26	41
Would vote (pp)	−22.7	25.4	[−74.0, 28.5]	0.099 / 0.171	23 / 32	43
Extent of democracy	−0.044	0.504	[−1.061, 0.973]	0.127 / 0.102	27 / 28	42
Satisfaction with democracy	−0.637	0.850	[−2.349, 1.074]	0.120 / 0.145	26 / 35	47
Preference for democracy	−0.511	0.628	[−1.776, 0.754]	0.108 / 0.174	22 / 36	46
Identify as national	0.135	0.496	[−0.866, 1.135]	0.097 / 0.200	22 / 34	44
Civic: often (pp)	−14.3	17.0	[−48.5, 19.9]	0.119 / 0.132	27 / 33	45
Civic: willing, did not participate (pp)	−3.0	25.4	[−54.3, 48.2]	0.119 / 0.132	27 / 33	45

Notes: Regression discontinuity estimates with the specification of Table 6, applied to outcomes measured before the election. For each ethnic-group-by-race cell of the main analysis, the pre-election observations are members of the same group, interviewed in the Afrobarometer rounds matched to the previous election and located in the constituency as drawn at the current election. The cell keeps the running variable, treatment, and prior representation of the current race; covariates are measured among the pre-election respondents, with years since the previous election in place of years since the current one. The surveys are repeated cross-sections, not a panel of individuals. The first analysis election in each country contributes no eligible pre-election observations, and 3 further covered cells (14 respondents) have unobserved prior representation and enter neither subsample. Estimation and bias bandwidths are reselected for each outcome and subsample. Panels A and B report conventional coefficients with robust bias-corrected standard errors and intervals clustered by race; Panel C reports the difference from a stacked regression with conventional standard errors clustered by race. Each regression has few cells relative to the number of parameters, so analytic inference is unreliable here, and a race-cluster bootstrap was too unstable to resolve this: the estimates are shown for transparency, without significance tests. 8 of the 33 analytic tests reject at the 10 percent level; this does not establish pre-existing differences, and the absence of a reliable discontinuity is not evidence of equivalence. Units as in Table 9.

Table E.6: Multiple-testing adjustment of the heterogeneity tests

		Unadjusted		Holm		Benjamini–Hochberg		Romano–Wolf	
	Diff.	CR1	Boot.	CR1	Boot.	CR1	Boot.	Conv.	Bias-corr.
A. Family of nine tests: continuity minus transition (Table 6)									
Responsiveness (index)	−0.243	0.460	0.657	1.000	1.000	0.621	0.739	0.954	0.947
Trust: government side (index)	−0.678	0.103	0.156	0.718	1.000	0.308	0.468	0.719	0.650
Civic participation (index)	0.717	0.043	0.080	0.389	0.721	0.255	0.468	0.519	0.483
Own group treated unfairly	−0.136	0.717	0.577	1.000	1.000	0.807	0.739	0.954	0.947
Would vote (pp)	33.5	0.057	0.126	0.453	1.000	0.255	0.468	0.748	0.782
Extent of democracy	0.354	0.188	0.547	1.000	1.000	0.423	0.739	0.863	0.947
Satisfaction with democracy	−0.166	0.483	0.382	1.000	1.000	0.621	0.688	0.954	0.947
Preference for democracy	−0.248	0.428	0.362	1.000	1.000	0.621	0.688	0.954	0.932
Identify as national	−0.024	0.941	0.831	1.000	1.000	0.941	0.831	0.959	0.992
B. Family of 18 tests: adds the nine later-minus-first-round differences									
Continuity − transition									
Responsiveness (index)		0.460	0.657	1.000	1.000	0.669	0.788		
Trust: government side (index)		0.103	0.156	1.000	1.000	0.264	0.351		
Civic participation (index)		0.043	0.080	0.734	1.000	0.226	0.324		
Own group treated unfairly		0.717	0.577	1.000	1.000	0.859	0.741		
Would vote (pp)		0.057	0.126	0.849	1.000	0.226	0.324		
Extent of democracy		0.188	0.547	1.000	1.000	0.376	0.741		
Satisfaction with democracy		0.483	0.382	1.000	1.000	0.669	0.649		
Preference for democracy		0.428	0.362	1.000	1.000	0.669	0.649		
Identify as national		0.941	0.831	1.000	1.000	0.941	0.880		
Later − first round									
Responsiveness (index)		0.763	0.565	1.000	1.000	0.859	0.741		
Trust: government side (index)		0.052	0.090	0.838	1.000	0.226	0.324		
Civic participation (index)		0.734	0.735	1.000	1.000	0.859	0.827		
Own group treated unfairly		0.124	0.126	1.000	1.000	0.279	0.324		
Would vote (pp)		0.064	0.044	0.898	0.793	0.226	0.324		
Extent of democracy		0.904	0.971	1.000	1.000	0.941	0.971		
Satisfaction with democracy		0.232	0.396	1.000	1.000	0.418	0.649		
Preference for democracy		0.006	0.056	0.101	0.953	0.101	0.324		
Identify as national		0.075	0.106	0.978	1.000	0.226	0.324		

Notes: Diff.: continuity-minus-transition difference of Table 6 (conventional coefficients; indices and items in standard deviations of members of the runner-up's group, would vote in percentage points). All entries other than Diff. are p-values. CR1: conventional p-value from the stacked regression with standard errors clustered by race (Table 6). Boot.: percentile p-value of the difference between the bias-corrected estimates from the race-cluster bootstrap (999 draws; Table E.1). Holm and Benjamini–Hochberg adjust each set of unadjusted p-values within the family. Romano–Wolf: stepdown adjustment computed on one joint set of race bootstrap draws for the conventional and the bias-corrected statistics. Panel A is the family of the nine outcome-specific differences of Table 6. Panel B adds the nine later-minus-first-round differences of Table 8 (estimated without years since the election); Romano–Wolf p-values were computed only for Panel A. The families were defined after the estimates were known. The adjustments cover these differences only, not the subsample estimates themselves, and the civic participation response categories are not part of either family.